

The Propaedeutic Logic

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Contents

Introduction.

I.

Formal and Speculative Logic.

II.

The Aim of the Propaedeutic Logic.

First Part.

The Doctrine of the Subjective Concept.

First Chapter.

The Formation of the Subjective Concept.

§ 1. The General Representation.

§ 2. The Clear and Distinct Intuition.

§ 3. Insight, or the Subjective Concept.

§ 4. The Apriority of the Concept.

§ 5. The Totality of the Concept.

Second Chapter.

The Presentation of the Subjective Concept: the Logical Judgment.

§ 6. The Logical Form of the Judgment.

§ 7. The Logical Content of the Judgment.

§ 8. The Logical Totality of the Judgment.

Third Chapter.

The Validity of the Subjective Concept: Inference and Proof.

- § 9. The Logical Requisites of Inference.
- § 10. The Formal Validity of Inference.
- § 11. The Real Validity of Inference: Proof and Method.

Second Part.***The Doctrine of the Objective Concept.******Introduction.***

- § 12. The Dialectical-Speculative Method.

First Chapter.

The Formation of the Objective Concept.

- § 13. Being and Essence.
- § 14. Essence and Actuality.
- § 15. Actuality and the Concept.

Second Chapter.

The Freedom of the Objective Concept.

- § 16. Ideality and Reality.
- § 17. Subjectivity and Objectivity.
- § 18. Teleology.

Third Chapter.

The Fullness of the Objective Concept: the Logic of the Idea.

- § 19. The Originality of the Idea.
 - § 20. The Interaction of the Ideas.
 - § 21. Idea and God.
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Contents

Introduction.	1
I. Formal and Speculative Logic.	1
II. The Aim of the Propaedeutic Logic.	3
First Part: The Doctrine of the Subjective Concept.	4
First Chapter. The Formation of the Subjective Concept.	5
Second Chapter. The Presentation of the Subjective Concept: the Logical Judgment.	24
Third Chapter. The Validity of the Subjective Concept: Inference and Proof.	47
second Part: The Doctrine of the Objective Concept.	66
Introduction.	66
First Chapter. The Formation of the Objective Concept.	67
Second Chapter. The Freedom of the Objective Concept.	67
Third Chapter. The Fullness of the Objective Concept: the Logic of the Idea.	68

Introduction.

I.

Formal and Speculative Logic.

By reflecting upon its own thinking, the subject is led to make clear to itself the various operations of thought and their mutual connection. The first requirement is that thinking be consistent and follow its own laws without any regard either to the psychical peculiarity of the thinking subject or to the character of the objects to which it might otherwise be applied. Formal logic therefore treats thinking as a given phenomenon of spirit, without asking after its origin or its objective validity. This question is nonetheless so momentous that the whole direction and destiny of philosophy depends upon the way in which it is answered. The sensualists teach that the soul (*tabula rasa*) receives its original content from the sensory impressions of the surrounding world (impressions), and end by making thinking a mere shadow of experience. Subjective idealism, on the contrary, vindicates the soul's infinite self-activity, and conceives the world of experience as the representing I's own unconscious product. Each of these theories misjudges human thought. Sensualism undervalues thinking, doubts the universal validity of the laws of thought, and can for that reason find no truth in the actual world; idealism overvalues subjective thinking, denies the world's true actuality, and ends in formal emptiness. Both one-sidednesses are overcome in speculative logic, which shows that our rational thinking mirrors the reason revealed in the universe.

Remark 1. By making sensation the source of cognition, sensualism was bound to lead to skepticism; for sensation refers only to the particular and contingent, not to the universal and necessary; experience teaches merely *that* something happens, but not *why* it happens; it shows that the one follows upon the other, but does not prove that the one is a consequence of the other; on such presuppositions it was accordingly consistent that Hume contested the concept of causality.

Remark 2. Against Hume's theory Kant raised his opposition. The fundamental thought of the Kantian critique of reason is this, that our pure sensory intuitions (time and space), categories of the understanding (unity and multiplicity, cause and effect, etc.) and ideas of reason (the soul, the world, God) cannot have been abstracted from a world of experience lying outside consciousness, since they themselves constitute the necessary presuppositions without which no experience is possible. But while Kant defended the subjective universal validity of the a priori forms, he denied them, on the other hand, all objective significance. The whole world of experience is consequently to be regarded as a product of two factors, namely of the a priori forms and of an unknown object ("das Ding an sich"), whose pure essence no one can cognize, because everyone who attempts to cognize it thereby at once takes it up into the subjective medium of his own consciousness.

Remark 3. The Kantian "Ding an sich" was contested by the elder Fichte. It is, according to Fichte's view, an absurdity to assume a "Ding an sich," since such a thing can neither be sensed nor thought. To an object that was supposed to lie wholly outside consciousness the subject cannot ascribe reality without falling into contradiction with itself; for if anyone says that he knows of the existence of such an object, then he has already drawn this existence into the circle of consciousness; he then says: I know something of an existence of which I nevertheless know nothing at all. "Das Ding an sich" was the last remnant of objectivity that the critical idealism left standing. By removing this unknown quantity, idealism became wholly subjective, and now concentrated itself in the proposition that the whole world is brought forth by the I. In order to understand this bold assertion, we must determine more closely the I's essence, its productivity, and its freedom.

- a) The I of which idealism speaks is not the empirical I, which finds itself immediately determined by the various expressions and states of the life of consciousness (I speak, grieve, rejoice, etc.); but the pure $I = I$, the I that in everything thinks itself, without regard to particular limitations and alterations.
- b) The productivity whereby the I brings forth the whole actual surrounding world is no loose play of fancy, nor an arbitrary imagination which the I could alter or arrest at its pleasure, but an act of necessity, whereby it presupposes those barriers whose infinite annulment conditions its freedom.

- c) The I's production of the world goes on unconsciously in its own obscure ground of life, and belongs, so to speak, to its nocturnal sphere; hence the universe comes forward with so imposing a power that the subject takes its own vision of the world for an outward, objective actuality. This popular view, however, is only a dream, which vanishes when philosophical thinking awakens. The transition from the standpoint of representation to the standpoint of philosophy is thus a transition from illusion to truth, from unfreedom to freedom.

Remark 4. Speculative logic has in recent times been founded by Hegel.

II.

The Aim of the Propaedeutic Logic.

It is thus a matter of fact that besides the so-called thinking of the understanding, which finds its immediate application in practical life and its higher cultivation in mathematics and the empirical sciences, there is yet another kind of thinking, namely the dialectical, which conditions all higher knowledge, and therefore has its proper home in speculative philosophy. Although both these main directions of thinking have their origin in one and the same source, the eternal reason, they nevertheless form, for the superficial view, so striking an opposition that it often seems as though truth were at strife with itself. This opposition shows itself not merely in a divergent terminology, but even in the way in which the laws of thought themselves are determined and presented, so that one may be very well practised in the thinking of the understanding without yet finding oneself able either to follow the course of philosophy or to appropriate its results. If, then, the propaedeutic logic is to answer to its true destination, if it is to orient us in the whole realm of thinking, it must necessarily engage with both of the opposed directions of thought. By keeping to formal thinking alone it would evidently give too little; by losing itself in the solution of speculative problems it would overstep its propaedeutic boundary: it therefore occupies a mediating place between formal and speculative logic.

Remark 1. In order to accomplish its task, the propaedeutic logic must give a comparative presentation of the formal and the speculative operations of thought.

If this presentation is to succeed, it must be shown step by step how a determinate thought-content, after first being regarded with the eye of the understanding, changes its appearance when viewed through the glass of dialectic. *The Doctrine of the Subjective Concept*, which constitutes the first part of the logic, therefore lets thinking seek its points of departure, step by step, in the firmer soil of the sense-world and of representation, in order thence to rise into the freer air-current of speculative cognition. By this movement from below upward we are everywhere led from experience into philosophy, from the circle of thought we call our own into that world of reason which reveals the divine Thinker. The exercise of thought and the insight into the essence of the concept that are hereby won introduce, in the next place, a more methodical development of the universal forms and principles of thinking and of existence, which is presented in the second part of the logic, i.e. *in the Doctrine of the Objective Concept*. But just as the first main division constantly points forward to a higher development of the concept, so must the latter in turn everywhere point back to the concepts' empirical existence, and cast light upon the actual world.

The Propaedeutic Logic's

First Part:

The Doctrine of the Subjective Concept.

First Chapter.

The Formation of the Subjective Concept.

§ 1.

The General Representation.

Likeness and unlikeness are the simplest forms in which the objects of the surrounding world can be presented to thinking consideration. The operation of thought that consists in bringing out and holding fast the like in unlike objects is an *abstraction*, and the result to which it leads a *general representation*, which may be characterized as a sense-image, a thought-image, and the fore-image of the concept.

Although two existing things cannot, in one and the same respect, be both like and unlike each other, it is nevertheless impossible to think likeness except by the help of unlikeness; the more sharply these categories are separated, the more clearly it appears that they pass over into each other: their boundary is consequently dialectical.

Remark 1. Several objects that have an essential likeness to one another we reduce in language to a single common designation, and thereby show that we overlook their accidental unlikeness. With language, abstraction begins at once; as the child learns to speak, it learns at the same time to abstract. The likeness of objects is observed by a comparison that is at first just as immediate as sensation itself, and abstraction proceeds, so far, quite unconsciously; but since likeness itself is no sensory object that could be removed, by outward separation, from the unlikenesses in which it finds its expression, abstraction shows itself to be an ideal act, whereby the subject itself takes the universal for the essential and lets the accidental modifications go — hence a beginning act of thinking, which needs only to be brought to consciousness in order that thinking proper may begin.

Remark 2. To see an object is, in other words, to form for oneself a representation corresponding to determinate sensory impressions. That the subject itself forms the representation is evident from the fact that the image of the object can be reproduced after the object itself has disappeared. By sensing a series of different objects there is developed in consciousness a circle of different images and representations; by

the application of comparison and abstraction a general representation is obtained. The general representation is in the beginning quite immediate. One represents the universal to oneself by setting up a single object as exemplar. Universality thus coincides with the image in which it is intuited, and is consequently to be regarded as a *sense-image*. But a closer examination shows that every exemplar that is to represent pure universality gives us both too much and too little. Besides the universal, the exemplar expresses also the peculiarity of a determinate object, and so contains too much; on the other side it shows universality only in a particular shape, and for that reason gives us too little. The subject, which now attempts to form a determinate representation of the universal, obtains then only an unsurveyable series of exemplars, each of which, taken by itself, is equally adequate and equally inadequate. The consequence is that the general representation, encumbered with sensuousness, vanishes like a phantom-image, and only the thought of the universal, which is itself a thought, remains behind. By passing over into thinking, the general image becomes, properly speaking, imageless. Thinking is negative insofar as the universal is at the same time the invisible, which cannot be represented or held fast in any image. Abstracting thought sets the universal free from all sensory admixtures; but when it is further considered that the universal never exists for itself, but is abstracted from the existing objects, then thinking must in turn annul the abstraction, and the eye of the understanding must behold the universal in its single exemplars and examples. Free thought hovers unceasingly between the imageless and the imaged, whereby the general image is transformed into a *thought-image*. Accordingly it encloses *and comprehends* all the single objects, and in this sense is to be posited as *the fore-image of the concept*.

Remark 3. When the universal is held fast by abstraction, it is called an abstractum; when on the contrary it is intuited in a determinate exemplar, we have it *in concreto*. Yet the relation between the abstract and the concrete is determined otherwise in formal than in speculative logic.

Remark 4. As regards the relation between pure likeness and unlikeness, it is in the first place evident that they mutually exclude each other, or, in other words, that they bound each other. But this does not settle the matter; for every negative bounding of thought must also be converted into a positive determination of thought. What is the like? Answer: the like is unlike the unlike, and thereby like itself. In this lies that the thought of likeness not only falls outside the thought of unlikeness, but

also coincides with it. He who thinks directly of the like thereby thinks indirectly of the unlike. Unlikeness is thus the category whereby likeness is determined. The boundary between pure likeness and unlikeness can never stand still; hence it is said, in the language of dialectic, that they pass over into each other. That this dialectic is not arbitrary is proved by the history of philosophy itself. For by making the boundary between the like and the unlike immovable and undialectical, the Eleatics could prove that all becoming was unthinkable. If becoming is to be thought, they said, then it must be either the like that comes from the unlike, or the like that arises from the like. In the latter case no becoming can take place, for since the like is = the like, there is no transition here; in the former case something would have to come to be out of nothing, for in the unlike the like cannot be contained at all. The Eleatic abstraction betrays its one-sidedness in that it will not let the one concept integrate the other.

§ 2.

The Clear and Distinct Intuition.

When the object of thinking consideration shows itself as a *unity* in a multiplicity, the subjective activity of thought consists: a) in an *analysis* or ideal singling-out, whereby the manifold marks and determinations that are to be distinguished with respect to the object are set apart from one another; b) in an ideal gathering-together or *synthesis*, whereby the singled-out plurality is led back to its unity. The result won by this double operation of thought is a *clear and distinct intuition*. By virtue of the intuition's clearness, the objectual unity is singled out from the infinite multiplicity of existence and posited as determinate singleness; by the intuition's being made distinct, the single object is itself determined by a multiplicity of single features, which are comprised within its own unity. Without an analysis and synthesis, albeit an unconscious one, no determinate sensation or experience is possible; but the analytic and synthetic activity of thinking is from the beginning so wholly lost in sensation that the clear and distinct intuition itself bears the immediate stamp of sensuousness. Nevertheless the concept is here too present as fore-image; for analysis and synthesis cannot be applied except to relations; but a relation is itself no sensory object.

When the immediate categories of relation — unity and multiplicity — are themselves made the object of a thinking inquiry, a dialectical problem arises.

Remark 1. Insofar as the universal is the common form in whose likeness the mutual unlikeness of the single exemplars vanishes, it shows itself as the unity under which the objects can be subsumed; insofar as it also finds its concrete expression in each exemplar by itself, its likeness is itself further determined by unlikeness, maintains itself in a repetition, and passes over into plurality. Hence also most *nomina appellativa* have both a singular and a plural.

Remark 2. When that which is apprehended refers not to the sense of sight but to that of hearing, there can indeed be no talk of intuition, but there can always be talk of a clear and distinct apprehension.

Remark 3. When one speaks of an eye of the understanding, or of a thought-vision, these expressions must not be understood merely figuratively; for the transition from sensation to thinking cannot take place by a leap. As a thinking lies at the ground of all sensation, so an ideal sensing also lies at the ground of free thinking; as there is a sensory intuition, so there is also an intellectual intuition, and just as one may speak of a physical blindness, one may also speak of a mental blindness. But when it is now to be stated with determinateness what that ideal is toward which thought's gaze turns, there at once arises the difficulty that thought never dwells upon anything that can be set out and pointed to as a determinate example or a resting shape. While sense settles down to rest with a bounded object, thought is on the contrary in eternal unrest, and oversteps every boundary. As the sensing eye dwells on the one thing, it has at the same time turned itself away from the other; when thought, on the contrary, is to hold fast one determination, it always takes another to its aid. Hence the clear thought-vision is properly a double vision: a *regard* (*Hensyn*). What the *regard* is from the subjective point of view, the *relation* is from the objective; therefore thinking always aims at finding the determinate relations. In consequence, analysis and synthesis acquire a quite different significance for intellectual than for sensory intuition. For sense, the intuition is clear when the object in its pure singleness comes forward with determinate outlines; but thinking does not forget that the singled-out object is itself one among several, that its singleness can therefore be determined only with regard to other single things, and that it must accordingly be posited as a *separate* object. From the sensory side, the intuition is made distinct when the plurality contained in the object's unity comes forward as a sum of single features; for thought, on the contrary, the intuition can be made distinct only by the given single features

being determined with regard to one another, and posited as members of separate relations.

Remark 4. The relation of unity to plurality is determined by merely representational thinking thus: that something which in one respect can be regarded as a plurality can in another respect be posited as a unity; but dialectical thinking is not content with so external a joining of opposed regards; it asks whether unity, when clearly and distinctly thought through, does not itself determine itself as a plurality. In Plato's dialogue, the *Parmenides*, Socrates has hit upon the problem, which he propounds roughly thus: That I, Socrates, am in one respect a unity, in another respect a multiplicity, is not so wonderful; but if anyone could prove to me that ἓν was πολλά and πολλά ἓν, then I should marvel greatly (ἀγαίμην ἂν θαυμάστως, ὦ Ζήνων). The Eleatics (Zeno) demonstrated the contradiction that lies in the category of plurality. "If it is assumed that several things exist, then their number must be both determinate and indeterminate. The things must be thought to make up a determinate number, for they must be just as many as they are (neither more nor fewer); but on the other side their number must also be thought to be indeterminate; for between the separated things there are yet other things, and outside the number of determinate things again a number of determinate things; consequently the number of things becomes infinite, indeterminable, and thereby in itself indeterminate. Since it is now a contradiction to think the number of things both as determinate and as indeterminate, plurality is assumed to be unthinkable." The truth in this is that abstract analysis can go on to infinity: every plurality consists of unities, each of these unities is again to be thought as a plurality with its unities, and so forth. Abstract synthesis likewise goes on to infinity; for the unity in which a plurality is gathered is again a member in a series of several similar unities; if these are now bound together by a new synthesis, we have once more a unity in a new series, and so on. In this respect we must therefore grant the Eleatics their point when they maintain that the number of things will become infinite if a plurality is assumed at all. But the thought of such an infinity stands in no insoluble contradiction with the proposition that the number must also be determinate. For when synthesis is everywhere joined with analysis, every unity becomes determined by *its* plurality, and the number of things in consequence *infinitely determinate*.

Remark 5. If the relation between unity and plurality is considered purely quanti-

tatively, unity is posited as continuity, plurality as discreteness. Every line represents such a continuity, whose discreteness is again to be sought in the line's innumerable points.

§ 3.

Insight, or the Subjective Concept.

If an existing object is also to be an object for a comprehending thinking, its content must let itself be apprehended in the form of *wholeness and parts*. As the whole and its parts are seen mutually to condition and determine each other, questions are thereby called forth about presupposition and consequence, about ground and consequent, and thinking, which now renders to itself an account of the whole complex of determinate relations, shows itself as a *reflection*, whereby the subject comes to a *concept of the thing*, or to an *insight* into the essence and character of things.

The contradiction that lies in the concept of totality itself was brought forward early by the Greek philosophers, just as it also plays an important role throughout the whole history of philosophy, especially with respect to the question of the infinite divisibility of matter. As a contradiction between the simple and the composite it was reduced by Kant to an antinomy, which in turn found its dialectical resolution in the Hegelian logic.

Remark 1. When unity is posited as wholeness, it is thereby expressed that it embraces a multiplicity of single elements, which make up its parts. For sensory consideration the whole shows itself merely as the aggregate of the parts; for intellectual apprehension, on the contrary, the whole is to be determined as the *general* connection of the parts, and the parts as members in the whole's *separate* connection. When the whole is given as presupposition, the character and mutual relation of the parts follow with necessary consequence. Hence it is said in Professor *Sibbern's* explicative logic that by cognizing the whole's *mode of existence* one comes to see into the parts' *ground of existence* (*ratio essendi*). For when something is posited directly in such wise that something else is thereby posited indirectly, the former is called the ground, the latter the consequent; therefore the ground is always the primitive member of the relation, and the consequent its consecutive member.

Remark 2. From the determinate relation between wholeness and parts it is evident that the true thought-vision is a double vision. As the whole is seen immediately, the parts come mediately into view, and conversely. The parts and the whole mirror or reflect one another; hence free, self-conscious thinking has also received the name of *reflection*.

- a) The word reflection is no doubt borrowed proximately from optics; but the natural light is also a copy of the light of thought. There is the same relation between thinking's opposed members as between "two mirrors, of which the one reflects the other's image, and in this reflection reflects its own" (cfr. Professor Heiberg: Grundtræk til Philosophiens Philosophie, Pg. 34).
- b) Reflection is also the expression for the *deliberating and testing* thinking. This signification of the word is derived from the foregoing. Only when the one thought is seen in the light of the other does it become evident how far they can subsist with each other or not.
- c) Finally, reflection can also designate the *reasoning and grounding* thinking; for when two thoughts strive against each other, it becomes a question which of them the subject is to give up, and which to hold fast; this can be decided only by a determinate regard, or by a presupposition that contains the determining ground. The thought of man's freedom, for example, cannot be reconciled with the thought of an inescapable fate: the thinking subject must now hold fast either freedom or fate; if regard is had to conscience and imputability, then the thought of an irresistible fate must be given up; if, on the contrary, regard is had merely to a mechanical necessity of nature, the thought of freedom must vanish. Which regard the subject will take in a given case may in turn depend upon other regards, and so on to infinity. Since every regard contains a partial ground, the thinking that is lost in external regards leads to a reasoning of grounds. Insofar as the actual surrounding world shows us things in their many different combinations and entanglements, reasoning thought becomes necessary in all empirical inquiries. But reasoning thought is nevertheless of finite nature; if it attempts to tear itself loose from given experience, it must end by adducing grounds *pro* and *contra*, without ever reaching the highest and last ground. Only

when all outer regards vanish in one fundamental view does reflecting thought take on a philosophical character, and find the infinite presupposition from which all finite relations can be deduced. From the standpoint of finitude, thinking is thorough when it apprehends the matter in its many different relations, the remoter as well as the nearer; from the standpoint of infinity it is thorough only when it seeks and finds the absolute ground. As it is a philosophical affectation to want to apply the infinite forms of dialectic to the finite content of everyday life, or to disdain a reasoning of grounds where what is in question is an understanding critique or an orientation in practical affairs, so on the other hand it betrays a scientific narrowness to want to make one's way through with a merely reasoning thinking when what is at stake is a cognition of the eternal truths.

Remark 3. The result of reflection carried through is *the concept*, as such, or the proper thought-result. The concept is thus a thought-whole, or a fundamental thought, that lets itself appear in a multiplicity of separate thought-determinations and their mutual connection. If it is now asked where the concept exists, it may in the first place be said to have its existence in the thinking subject's consciousness. The subject sees the object in its different relations, abstracts from it the determinate relations, sunders (analysis) and unites (synthesis) the partial thoughts in their fundamental thought (reflection), and is therefore said to form for itself a *concept of the thing*. But insofar as it is the existing object from which the subjective concept is abstracted, one can also speak of the object's own concept, or of the thought-whole expressed in the object. The difference between the object and its concept is, properly speaking, a difference between its intellectual and its sensory side, which is more closely to be determined as an opposition between the thing's *inner* and its *outer*. The outer is for sense, the inner for thought; hence the subjective *concept of the thing* is also said to be an *insight into the thing* (ἐπιστήμη — νοητόν).

Remark 4. In order to form a concept of those phenomena that come into view piecemeal, without the whole being immediately surveyable, it often becomes necessary to imagine for oneself an intellectual whole, or to set up a *hypothesis*. The cognition to which the hypothesis leads is, however, only finite and relative. Thought hovers between experience and reflection. In empirical respect the hypothesis is

insufficient; for the parts (the outer) *condition* but do not *ground* the whole (the inner), and in intellectual respect the insight rests upon a reasoning of grounds that lacks the sufficient ground. The hypothesis therefore yields only a probability, which must be raised to certainty either by a new experience, which then introduces a new inquiry of thought, or by a deeper insight into the connection's essential ground (the Copernican hypothesis, Newton). What the hypothesis is in relation to the whole, *the conjecture* is in relation to a single member missing in the whole. (Jfr. Sibberns Logik § 23.)

Remark 5. Representational thinking determines the relation between the whole and the parts thus: the whole is posited = the sum of the parts, but greater than any of its single parts. This way of seeing has its full validity so long as only finite magnitudes are in question; but it is wholly insufficient as soon as the inquiries are carried over into the territory of infinity. The spiritualists (Berkeley), who denied the being of matter, appealed to the contradiction that lies in the thought of an infinite divisibility. Matter, according to their contention, cannot exist at all; for since it is thought to consist of infinitely many infinitely small parts, every part must become = the whole. Suppose, for example, a (the part) $< A$ (the whole); by multiplying by ∞ on both sides one obtains $\infty a = \infty A$, and by again dividing both factors by the same magnitude, namely ∞ , there results: $a = A$. The mathematicians' objection, that such an operation is absurd, cannot refute the spiritualists' theory, for it rests precisely upon the admitted absurdity. Equally insufficient is the common remark that in the infinite itself no boundary can be set, and that greatness and smallness must therefore flow together in the fog of infinity; for the task is precisely to let the light of thought disperse this fog, or, in other words, to cognize how the finite and the infinite mutually determine each other. — Still more determinately did the problem come forward in the Kantian critique of reason, where it was reduced to an antinomy lying in the concept of substance:

Thesis: Every composite substance must consist of simple parts. If not, then every part would in turn be composite, and the resolution of the composition would have to be continued until at last the substance came to consist of nothing.

Antithesis: There exists no simple substance. For no composition is possible except in space; now if there were a substance consisting of simple parts, then space itself would have to consist of indivisible parts; but space can be divided to infinity.

The truth in the Kantian antinomy is, as Hegel has also shown, this: that the

thought of a whole always carries with it the thought of parts. When a certain determinate part is separated from its whole, it is itself posited as a whole. The same thing that from one point of view must be regarded as a whole must from another point of view be determined as a part; the relation turns itself about unceasingly, and every finite boundary is annulled. But each time a determinate whole is posited, it enters into a determinate opposition to its parts, so that the finite side of the boundary also comes into view. Everything then depends solely upon the relation itself being more closely determined. The relation between wholeness and parts has a certain likeness to the relation between unity and plurality, continuity and discreteness; nevertheless an essential difference is here to be observed. For when continuity is posited, discreteness has vanished; and when discreteness is posited, continuity is broken off. Continuity and discreteness can be exchanged with each other to infinity, but they do not, properly speaking, reflect each other. This, on the contrary, is the case with the whole and the parts; when the whole is posited, the parts are posited too, and conversely. Hence this relation is called a *relation of reflection* or an *essential relation*.

Remark 6. At its lowest stage, wholeness is a mechanical compositum, which shows us the relation from its finite side. On a higher stage stands the organic whole; hence there is also said to be an infinite relation between life and organism. In its highest development, wholeness is raised to a free totality, a reflected *singleness*, in which the concept coincides entirely with its object. Thus the whole I is present in each of its self-conscious expressions of life, and yet it is a singleness that cannot be divided. As sensation *begins* immediately with the single, so thinking *ends* with the reflected singleness.

§ 4.

The Apriority of the Concept.

Although the subjective concept in its original development is conditioned by experience, it nevertheless reflects its own essential determinations with such independence and consistency (concept-analysis) that it can by no means be a product or empty reflection of experience. Just as little can the world of experience be regarded as a product of the subjective I, although all experience is conditioned by a priori

thinking. Hence formal logic also makes a distinction between *a priori* and *a posteriori* concepts. The *a priori* concepts do not belong merely to the thinking subject, as though they formed an impassable gulf between subjective cognition and objective truth, but express those *general* fundamental forms which do not presuppose special experience, inasmuch as they everywhere find their application to the existing objects and their different relations. On the other side, the *a posteriori* concepts, which are abstracted from the objects met with in experience, must not be thought to stand indifferent to the subjective laws of thought, for thereby they would cease to be true concepts; they are much rather to be regarded as the *separate* forms in which *a priori* thinking recognizes its own peculiar content (normal-concepts).

The infinite interaction between subjective thinking and objective reason presupposes a creative freedom, as the absolute prius, from which all thinking and being have their common origin.

Remark 1. Professor Sibbern, in his explicative logic (2nd edition Pag. 190–200), has distinguished between the *pursuing*, the *general*, and the *pure concept-analysis*. The *pursuing* analysis carries the concept-determinations found in the object out beyond the empirical boundary, by making distinct the consequences lying within them. The *general* concept-analysis finds the concept in the living word, separates the word's original meaning from the derived, shows its kinship with other words (synonymics), thereby discovers the essential requisites of the concept sought, and is thus able not merely to determine but even to correct linguistic usage. The *pure* concept-analysis makes distinct thinking's own categories, and plays a chief role in the objective logic. In all these kinds of concept-analysis it appears that thinking goes out beyond the given, so that the sensualists are wrong in denying its independence.

Remark 2. The critical idealism, which indeed concedes to thinking a subjective apriority, but denies its power to cognize objective truth, and in proof of this appeals to the antinomies, finds its refutation in the dialectical resolution of these antinomies. On the other hand the subjective idealism, which refers the whole objective world-content to the I's infinite apriority, cannot be refuted by the fact that the development of thinking is conditioned by experience, since it is not the world of experience's necessity but its independence that it denies.

Remark 3. The Cartesian principle: *Cogito, ergo sum*, has found its consistent development in the Fichtean "Wissenschaftslehre." The absolute subject, I, can doubt

everything, only not its own thinking and being. The proposition: I *think*, falls immediately together with the proposition: I *am*. The subject cannot think without *being* thinking, and though it should doubt the validity of all single thoughts, it still cannot by any doubt whatever annul the certainty of thinking in general, since in order to doubt all thinking it must necessarily think, and consequently rely upon thinking in the same instant in which it doubts thinking's validity. Whatever does not have this incontestable certainty must fall outside science proper. Since science cannot be an aggregate of loose representations, since one fundamental truth must run through all single truths, all scientific propositions must also let themselves be led back to one irrefragable first principle, and from this in turn be deduced. If now the I has found this general first principle in its own thinking and being, then it has at the same time found the source of truth in itself, and philosophy, the pure science, would then according to this theory be in a position to comprehend the whole of existence in virtue of the supreme first principle, or, in other words, to construct its world *a priori*. The truth in this is that scientific thinking can acknowledge nothing but what the consistency of thought carries with it, and that the necessity with which truth compels from the thinking subject its acknowledgment is the purest touchstone of the certain and the uncertain. But the subjective idealism's constructing *a priori* carries with it nonetheless a one-sidedness that shows itself in several ways (Jacobi's knitting-stockings). The subject, which always has its gaze turned toward the formal I-hood, loses sight of the actual world and its concrete content. Either philosophical knowledge must then be restricted to a small number of abstract truths, or else the philosopher who undertakes to construct nature and history *a priori* will easily be convicted of having insinuated empirical presuppositions contrary to the principle set up. Unsuccessful attempts to construct *a priori* what can be cognized only in experience's *a posteriori* medium have contributed above all else to bringing philosophy into discredit.

Remark 4. The distinction between *a priori* and *a posteriori* concepts refers, according to formal logic, to their source or origin. The simplest form in which such a distinction can be held fast is this, that the *a priori* concepts are said to be *prior* to the things to which they are *applied*; the *a posteriori*, on the contrary, to follow *after the things* from which they are *abstracted*, so that the former have their origin from thinking itself, the latter from experience. But more closely considered, this opposition cannot maintain itself. It has already appeared that the concept of a thing is not to be

sought in its accidental outer, but in its inner, i.e. in its intelligible essentiality. That thinking abstracts its empirical concepts from the objects means then, in other words, that in their determinate essence it recognizes its own original essentiality. Experience is thus no proper source of concepts, but only the means whereby the subject's general thinking is enriched with a thought-content concrete and distinctly stamped in itself. The concept, which with respect to our apprehension may be a posteriori, insofar as a special experience has gone before, is yet with respect to the object itself a priori, since a thing's inner and outer always stand related as the primitive (*dignitate prius*) to the consecutive (*dignitate posterius*). The a priori interaction between the thing's concept and our comprehending thinking comes into view in the development of the so-called *normal-concepts* (jfr. Sibbern § 47). The normal-concept begins *a posteriori*, insofar as its general ground-lines are first discovered in an empirically given object; but it shows itself at the same time from an a priori side, insofar as it at once becomes evident that the actual object does not answer to its demands. This disproportion then leads the subject, thinking through the concept's consequences, to imagine or construct for itself an object so perfect that the intimated concept finds therein its adequate expression. The fruitful application that can in actuality be made of such normative concepts (for example in crystallography) proves clearly that thorough thinking has found the original meaning of things, or, what is the same, that the a priori demands that guide the thinker also govern actuality. All so-called a posteriori concepts, when they are not confused with mere representations or sensory intuitions, are properly to be regarded as special appearances of the universal reason, whose apriority is as objective as it is subjective. With respect to the method of our comprehension, on the other hand, the distinction between a priori and a posteriori concepts may so far have its significance, as it reminds the thinking subject of its finitude and intellectual limitation. Insofar as the concrete concepts are won *a posteriori*, experience must go hand in hand with comprehending thinking; insofar as the a posteriori concepts are the a priori thinking's own types, experience's sporadic content must be purified in the pure, universal dialectic. From the a posteriori side all our cognition is piecemeal, and our thinking discursive; according to comprehension's apriority the piecemeal must in turn be annulled in the scientific ground-cognition. As there must accordingly be empirical sciences, which rest upon the a posteriori and follow their own independent method, so there must necessarily also be a science of the sciences, namely philosophy,

which, according to its peculiar method, aims at cognizing truth in its apriority. The concrete carrying-through of philosophy is won only through experience, and the light that clears up experience streams forth in turn from philosophy.

Remark 5. The question of the subjective concept's relation to empirical actuality transforms itself, in the highest instance, into a problem concerning the relation between *thinking and being*. According to the subjective idealism, real being perishes in formal thinking; according to the crass empiricism (sensualism), free thinking goes to ground in contingent being. Since now each of these theories has shown itself in its one-sidedness; since subjective thinking cannot produce the fullness of existence, and objective existence can only be thought, because it is everywhere subject to the laws of thought, but cannot itself think, since it lacks subjective freedom: the finite opposition between thinking and being must be led back to its original ground-unity. In this primal ground, or original ground, the opposition loses its finitude; for thinking coincides at every point with being, and both are so far equally infinite. But on the other side this infinite unity cannot be without difference either. If thinking and being were in their deepest ground tautological, then the finite separation, which is precisely what is to be explained from the ground, would be without any ground. The result is accordingly this, that the finite, *consecutive* opposition between thinking and being seeks its sufficient, *primitive* ground in their infinite, absolute opposition, i.e. in that concept in which their separation is as infinite as their union, so that their outer difference is transformed into an inner, *living* unity. The absolute Being, which by virtue of its free thinking produces the actual existence, reveals at the same time the reality of its own existence in the product of its creative freedom. At this turning-point the *logical* passes over into the *theological*. Anselm's ontological proof of God's existence is a logical presentation of the absolute concept's infinite apriority. The objections that at different times (Gaunilo—Kant) have been brought against this proof strike not the substance but the form. For the proof's adequate form can properly be carried through only in ontology, or the objective logic.

§ 5.

The Totality of the Concept.

The complex of all determinations belonging to a concept makes up its inner totality or *content*; the number of the existing objects in which the concept finds its expression determines its outer totality or *extension*. With respect to content and extension, concepts have been divided in formal logic into *higher* (*conceptus superiores*) and *lower* (*conceptus inferiores*), such that the former, which have less content but greater extension, comprise the latter under themselves. Since this division applies especially to the natural relation between genus (*genus*) and species (*species*), the superordinate concepts have also generally been called *genus-concepts*, the subordinate *species-concepts*.

The dialectical relation between the concept's inner and outer totality led the Schoolmen of the Middle Ages to a metaphysical inquiry concerning the universality of concepts (*universalia*) and the singleness of things (*res, ens, entitas, hæcceitas*). The nominalists (*universalia post rem*) misjudged the concept's essential apriority; the one-sided realists (*universalia ante rem*) overlooked the *principium individuationis*. The true realism (*universalia in re*) is at the same time the highest idealism (*universalia in mente divina*). The divine thinking, which reflects the absolute concept, is one with the creative omnipotence, which brings forth that actuality in which the concept's inner totality is sundered and transformed into an outer totality of relative concepts, whose existence is posited in and *with* the existing things.

Remark 1. The actual concept is a thought-whole that finds its expression in a corresponding sensory whole; it is an inner that comes forward in its outer. If now the relation between the inner and the outer is to be more closely determined, these principal sides again step apart from each other as separate totalities. The outer, which is sensed but not thought, is indifferent to the inner, which is thought but not sensed; a thing's empirical or palpable outward can never be derived from its concept: the intellectual and the sensibly real are so far to be regarded as incommensurable magnitudes. But on the other side the concept cannot step out into actuality without presupposing a stuff or material in which it is realized and comes into view: every outer must answer to *its* inner, and the object's empirical totality satisfy the concept's demands. If the surrounding world is regarded with a sensory eye, it is wholly without concept; if on the contrary it is regarded with the eye of thought, the concept comes into view in the most various forms. The inadequate relation between concept and actuality makes itself known not merely in the normal-concepts being hindered in their full

emergence (for example, the perturbations of the planets; the human organism's want of perfect health), but shows itself especially in this, that the concept's content, owing to the outer separation of finite things, falls out of itself into so sporadic a multiplicity of partial concepts that subjective reflection is not able to discover their concrete connection. Instead of reducing the partial concepts to moments in the absolute concept's inner totality, subjective thinking sets about grouping them according to the various more abstract or more concrete fundamental forms, and thereby making distinct to itself the concept's outer totality. The *insight* into a concept's essential determinations (content) is laid at the ground of a *survey* of the number of the objects that are subsumed under it (extension). It lies then in the nature of the case that content and extension stand in inverse relation.

Remark 2. If the concepts are compared among themselves with respect to extension, the higher concept cannot be said to contain the lower within itself, just as little as it exhausts all the intellectual determinations of the single thing. The higher and the lower concepts then separate from one another, owing to the objects' outer existence, in such wise that the former, as the more abstract, are indifferent to the latter; they stand to one another as wider and narrower schemata, so that the whole comprehending is reduced to a mere schematizing.

There are cases in which subjective thinking is not able to derive all the object's special concept-determinations from one fundamental determination, but must seek different points of departure for its consideration, and content itself with a combination of several concurrent concepts, each of which belongs to a different sphere. Thus Prof. Sibbern adduces (§ 42) that the intellectual penetration into the nature and essence of the crystallization-forms of a mineral has its own point of support in the mathematical consideration, whereas its investigation in respect of lustre, color, and so on has quite another." Insofar as a fundamental concept's modifications arise from outer concurrences and empirically determined circumstances, they can be overlooked as unessential and indifferent; but what is thus in one respect unessential is, from another point of view, under the presupposition of another fundamental concept, to be regarded as essential, and the various regards and combinations that the empirical pursuit of thought requires do not concern logic as such.

If on the contrary the concepts' own relations are developed, it appears that the higher concepts always have their specific content-determinations in the lower. This is

already expressed when the superordinate concepts are determined as genus-concepts (γέννη), the subordinate as species-concepts (εἶδη); for here it holds that every genus must contain its species. Life, regarded as genus-concept, requires not merely a plant-world and an animal-world, but also a human world for its complete expression. Organic nature presents this in such wise that the lower potencies of life, which win a sporadic existence in separate groups of individuals, whose genera and species are in turn relative concept-determinations, make up the basis upon which a higher potency of life develops itself. Thus man has the vegetative and animal life as basis for the rational. The partial appearances in which the concept of life is sundered and realized on the lower stages are gathered up and taken in as moments in the higher totality of human life. The proposition that man shall comprehend his life rests in the presupposition that the concept of life shall be realized in man.

Remark 3. When it is said that the concept, as such, is *the universal*, this proposition acquires an entirely different meaning according as subjective thinking comes to cognition of the universal by an *abstraction* or by a *reduction*. If the universal is held fast by abstraction, then the highest concept is reduced to an empty schema, an intellectual side, a common mark, which serves the reflection that orients itself in the outer multiplicity of things as a mere *ratio cognoscendi*. But when the universal is cognized in its true universality, it is not merely a side of everything, but the essential allness itself, the universal that penetrates everything, actualizes itself in everything, so that all single thoughts, all existing things, must let themselves be reduced to moments in its concrete content. In this sense the general concept is apprehended as the absolute concept, as the ground-unity that contains the *ratio essendi* of all separate concepts.

When it is further said that the concept is the *separate*, it is thereby expressed that multiplicity, difference and opposition belong to its intellectual essentiality, that the specific peculiarities and changing modifications (διαφορὰ, ἴδιον, συμβεβηκός) whereby things separate themselves from one another fall under thinking's point of view. Yet in this respect too it makes an essential difference whether the subject comes to cognition of separateness by mere *comparison* or by an immanent *deduction*. For the outer comparison the separate concepts fall apart from one another, so that their existence must be sought in the sporadic groups of objects, and *combination* unites them according to various regards. Universality is here again the empty schema. Deduction,

on the contrary, presupposes the fundamental concept's concrete universality, from which all separate concepts and concept-moments are derived. According to outer comparison there is an innumerable host of partial concepts; according to deduction the general concept is itself sundered into its separate determinations, and thereby completed in a *logical concept-system*. The more comprehensive the deduction is, the more it can make mere comparison and combination superfluous, the higher lies the concept's sphere, and the deeper is the insight.

When it is finally said that the concept itself is the *single*, a distinction must be made between the *sensory* and the *intellectual*, between the *immediate* and the *reflected* singleness. That the sensory singleness (that is to say here, the object in its merely empirical wholeness) does not as such concern the concept has already been shown in the foregoing, and becomes still more evident when we determine more closely the relation between the species-concept and its individuals. In relation to the genus, the species-concept is posited as a *separate* concept, in which the genus-concept's general content is specified; in relation to its individuals, the species-concept must on the contrary be developed into a single concept specified within itself, which as such is indifferent to the sensory singleness. The distinction Porphyry (in his introduction to the Aristotelian categories) has made between γένος, εἶδος, ἴδιον on the one side and διαφορὰ, συμβεβηκός on the other — that the former, namely, are used of a thing's "Qvidität" (ἐν τῷ τί ἐστι κατεγορεῖται), the latter of its "Qvalitet" (ἐν τῷ ὁποῖόν τί ἐστι κατ.) — is a merely empirical distinction, which falls away when comprehending thinking is carried through. The peculiar (τὸ ἴδιον) is just as much a qualitative as a "quidditative" determination, and the intellectual difference (ἡ διαφορὰ) is itself the moment whereby the transition is made from the genus-concept to its species-concept. The specification therefore cannot stop before the species-concept is absolutely individualized; but such a *species infima* is a single concept that maintains itself in the changing exemplars, insofar as these are apprehended merely from the sensory side. — Since now the genus-concept is always foundation for the species-concept, and this in turn is specified until the rational individuation is completed, the universal (the genus) and the separate (the species) merge into the concept's intellectual singleness (the logical individual).

The universal, the separate and the single concept are then, in consequence, not to be regarded as three sorts of concepts, since they much rather present the concept

reflected in absolute thinking from three principal sides; but just as little is their distinction an empty, formal one; for in finite existence they fall apart from one another under innumerable modifications and relations, and shape themselves into a world of real concepts.

Remark 4. Since the actual world presents itself at once both as an infinite complex of empirical objects, in which the concept is lost, and at the same time as an intellectual world, i.e. as a world of concepts, in which the sensory things vanish as indifferent magnitudes: there arises the metaphysical problem whether the reality of concepts is primarily to be sought in things, or the reality of things in concepts. While Plato declared himself especially for the latter, Aristotle on the contrary approached the former of these views, and Porphyry (Εἰσαγωγή: first section) puts the problem in the following terms: αὐτίκα περὶ γενῶν τε καὶ εἰδῶν, τὸ μὲν εἴτε ὑφέστηκεν, εἴτε καὶ ἐν μόναις ψιλαῖς ἐπινοίαις κεῖται, εἴτε καὶ ὑφεστηκότα σώματά ἐστιν, ἢ ἄσώματα, καὶ πότερον χωριστὰ, ἢ ἐν τοῖς αἰσθητοῖς, καὶ περὶ ταῦτα ὑφεστῶτα, παραιτήσομαι λέγειν, βαθυτάτης οὔσης τῆς τοιαύτης πραγματείας. Through the whole Middle Ages philosophy proper was occupied almost exclusively with the solution of this problem. The crass nominalism confused the concept's existence with the sensory singleness, negated the reality of concepts, and posited them as empty schemata (*nomina, flatus vocis*). The one-sided realism went to the opposite extreme, annulled the intellectual singleness, in that it wanted to negate the independence of the sensory things, and placed reality in the general fundamental forms and unchangeable types. The one-sidedness of both theories was demonstrated by Abelard. The fundamental thought in Abelard's demonstration is this, that neither party is able to give any true definition of the essence of a thing. The nominalists could not define, because they held fast the single without acknowledging the universal. For since definition rests upon an essential difference between *genus* and *species*, every nominalist definition that denies this difference must be wholly indifferent. If the concept *animal* is a mere *nomen*, then the concept *animal rationale* is also only a *nomen*, and the difference between beast and man consequently purely nominal. Just as little could the one-sided realists arrive at any true definition; for since they overlooked singleness, they had to confine themselves in every proposition to predicating the universal of the universal, whereby the concept's determinateness was wholly lost. If the man in Socrates, for example, were also man in all other individuals, then it would follow that the whole of mankind

must be sick every time Socrates was sick. These extremes the medieval philosophers, with all their reasoning acumen, could not reconcile. As realism developed itself to an acknowledgment of individuation, it had to seek the concepts' existence in things, and thus came to set up the theory of *universalia in re*. But when the existence of concepts and of things immediately coincides, thinking must again begin with singleness, and abstract the concept from the thing. The concept in its intellectual purity thus has validity only for abstracting and reflecting thought. The doctrine of *universalia in re* led in this way to the doctrine of *universalia in mente nostra*, whereby the developed realism passed over into a higher nominalism. The true yield of the Schoolmen's inquiries is the recognition that the concept's all-sided existence requires an intellectual as well as a sensuous medium. With intellectual freedom the concept exists only in comprehending thought (*in mente*); with immediate actuality it first comes forward in its sensory material (*in re*). But if its reflected being *in mente* is now to let itself be reconciled with its immediate existence *in re*, then both these extremes must seek their original ground in the divine thinking, which is one with the creative productivity. The theory of the empirical realism, that the concept exists *in re*, must then be raised to the truth that it is actualized by the comprehending omnipotence, which is the free cause of things; and the nominalist proposition, that *universalia* exist merely *in mente nostra*, subordinated to that proposition which is idealism's highest expression: that they exist *in mente divina*. Thus the subjective logic points once more to the objective.



Second Chapter.

The Presentation of the Subjective Concept: the Logical Judgment.

§ 6.

The Logical Form of the Judgment.

Language is the intellectual medium in which the thinking subject possesses its own concept-content and that of the surrounding world; hence the concept's rational purity and freedom can first be presented in words and sentences. Since no sentence may be meaningless, the concept is already discernible in every intelligible utterance; but if the meaning, as the merely represented concept, is to be expressed in the concept's own form, then the sentence itself must be transformed into a logical judgment. As the judgment's *single concept* (the subject) is subsumed by the copula "is" under its *general concept* (the predicate), *separateness*, or the determinate concept, comes into view in the difference and unity of the two. The unity of subject and predicate is an *identity*, which as such contains its difference; but since this difference is in turn different from the identity, *contradiction* enters.

The development of the mutual relation and logical significance of the principle of identity and the principle of contradiction affords one of the most essential points of dispute between the formal and the speculative logic.

Remark 1. Every object that answers to its concept can at the same time be said to *present* the concept. The simplest way in which a thinking subject can show that it has some concept of the thing will thus be to point out the objects in which the concept is to be sought. This mimic presentation is, however, highly imperfect, and proves that the subject has not got beyond "the general representation" and "the clear and distinct intuition." Hence it is also a criterion of merely representational thinking that it more easily produces an example than an adequate definition. — The concept is appropriated with greater freedom when it is possessed as guiding norm for an independent construction. The so-called "construction-concepts" (jfr. Sibberns Logik Pg. 137–163) may properly be said to lie on the boundary between theory and practice. The presentation of the concept here coincides immediately with its actualization. But the mechanical productions, considered in and for themselves, are only ambiguous testimonies of subjective insight, since bees, artisans and automata can up to a certain point present the concept in the same style. Of thoroughgoing significance, on the contrary, is the distinction between the artistic and the scientific, the plastic and the logical presentation of the concept's content. The plastic presentation keeps closest to *universalia in re*, the logical closest to *universalia in mente*. The artist, whose thoughts are intellectual visions, expresses the concept *in concreto* by presenting its image. That the concept really is in movement during artistic production is evident from the fact

that art's ideals can be developed in the theory of art, so that aesthetics constitutes an integral member in the system of philosophy. But the plastic presentation of the concept's content shows nonetheless its specific difference from the logical in this, that the artist's genial productivity by no means rises in the same degree as his reflecting cognition of the concept of art develops. The more sensuous art's material is, the more indifferently can it stand toward science; the more intellectual, on the contrary, the artistic medium shows itself, the more distinctly will the interaction between the logical and the plastic presentation come into view. Hence poetry enters into the most inward relation to philosophy; for poetry is the art of the word, and the word is the medium not only of intuition and representation, but also of thought and the concept.

Remark 2. In Plato's dialogue "Cratylus" the problem is treated whether the word, as such, is originally to be regarded as a natural copy of the thing (μίμημα), or perhaps rather as an arbitrary sign (θέσει); this is, in other words, the question whether language may be assumed to be a mere product of nature, or a means of communication chosen by common agreement. This inquiry concerning the origin of language concerns logic only insofar as the relation between the thinking subject's receptivity and spontaneity, between word and thought, representation and concept, hereby receives a closer determination. The Heraclitean view, that the sound of the word is originally a sensory imitation of the thing, corresponds to the sensualist theory of the *tabula rasa*. The soul, whose self-activity is lost in feeling and receptivity, is regarded as an instrument whose tones are produced by the impressions of the surrounding world, and the word is confused with the immediate sound of nature, which the beast has in common with man. The Democritean and sophistic theory of the understanding, which denies language's nature-side, is akin to the formal idealism, and moves in a tautological circle. The arbitrary choice of the word presupposes a reflection, but reflection in turn presupposes language, for all thinking is a speaking with oneself. In order to reach an agreement concerning an intellectual means of communication, the individuals would already have to be in possession of a means of communicating their thoughts to one another. The origin of language points to an immediate unity of sensation and thinking, a living interaction between the subjective and the objective reason, and can therefore, in logical generality, be regarded as a spiritual product of nature, which in the development of culture is more and more penetrated by free reflection. While Plato especially brings out language's nature-side,

Aristotle on the contrary urges the culture-side, and regards every noun as a free designation (φωνή σημαντική κατὰ συνθήκην) of the representation in which the soul holds fast the image of a determinate object. The single principal words of language can therefore be apprehended from a double point of view: partly they are to be seen as involuntary signs (τῶν ἐν τῇ ψυχῇ παθημάτων σύμβολα), to which the imagination has bound the images of things; partly they are reflection's own thought-symbols, in which it unceasingly hovers between representation and concept. It is often the case that a concept does not break through, and come to clear development, because it lacks its corresponding word — just as, conversely, the most primitive and pregnant expressions gradually fade and lose their freshness when the thought-content whose bearers they originally were is diluted and trivialized. (Philosophical root-words, categories — phrases.)

Remark 3. Every word carries a representation with it; but the word standing alone gives as yet no meaning. Meaning first arises when the word that immediately designates the thing's existence (the noun) is joined with another (the verb), which expresses its being and the utterance of its existence. Such a combination of words is a *sentence*, which again can be considered from the grammatical and from the logical side. From the logical point of view, the same relation obtains between the mere sentence and the judgment proper as between meaning and concept. As the subject in the sentence may be an accidental representation, so also the predicate may express a merely passing determination without the stamp of universal validity. Sentences such as: the boy plays, the snow melts, &c., cannot therefore without further ado be reckoned among the logical judgments. The formal mark whereby the judgment distinguishes itself from the mere sentence is not primarily to be sought in the subject, but rather in the copula and the predicate. If the thing is held fast in its immediate utterance or appearance, the copula can be contained in language's many different active, passive and neuter verbs (cryptic sentences). But if predication, as an act of thinking, is to come forward with logical universality, then it is at once evident that everything that can be affirmed or denied of a given object must in the last instance refer to being and not-being. Since now the sentence: *A is*, can be opposed both by: *A was*, and by: *A is not*, it follows that the copula "is" must distinguish itself from the verb in this, that tenses and moods lose their significance in the logical present of the position. As for the predicate, it belongs to its essence to express the universal, as

such. Hence such utterances as: the rose is red, the negro is black, &c., are likewise not to be regarded outright as judgments proper, although from the side of form there is nothing to object. Everything here depends upon the significance that is ascribed to the grammatical predicates red, black, &c.; if these are apprehended merely as immediate sense-determinations, then the utterances named are only sentences; if on the contrary they are *thought* as universal determinations in opposition to the subjects' singleness, then we have the judgments proper. That the predicate presents the concept's universality must not be understood as though it could express the concept only *in abstracto*, while the subject gave it *in concreto*. In such judgments as: "Man is rational," "The beast is living," the predicate is certainly more abstract than the subject, but precisely for that reason these judgments are not to be regarded as the concept's adequate expression either. In adequate judgments, subject and predicate have the same content (for example, God is the absolute Spirit). The reason why the subject is nevertheless apprehended as single concept, the predicate as general concept, is this, that the subject refers proximately to representation, while the predicate refers to thought. Insofar as the represented concept is at the same time possessed as a concept set out in existential immediacy, the subject expresses its *universale in re*, which the predicate in turn annuls in reflection, and posits as *universale in mente* (Stilpo's cabbage). With respect to the concrete subject, the concept's universal determinations are concentrated into immediate singleness; with respect to the developed predicate, the single concept's content is reflected through into pure universality. Both principal sides of the concept are thus each for itself posited as the whole concept, and yet these two are, by means of the copula "is," united in one positing, which expresses the mutual and thereby separate determinateness of both. This separateness comes into view in every judgment; for when it is said that the rose is red, there is just as much talk of the red rose as of the rose-red.

Remark 4. In every judgment the predicate is to declare *what* the subject is. Insofar as the judgment is not entirely adequate, the subject may well contain more determinations than the predicate; but this difference does not annul the likeness between subject and predicate, insofar as the determinations falling outside the predicate must in all such cases be assumed to fall outside the judgment as well. To hold fast the unity of subject and predicate, formal logic has set up the so-called principle of identity: *A is A, every thing is what it is*. But on the other side the predicate must nevertheless add a

new determination to the subject, or at the least render the determination in a new form; he who asks what *A* is cannot be satisfied with the answer that *A* is *A*, for that he knew already beforehand. By urging the formal principle of identity, the Megarian Stilpo contested all judgments proper. One could not, in his opinion, say: "The horse runs;" for "horse" and "to run" are not identical, since the same predicate is ascribed also to dogs and lions. Nor could one think the sentence: "Man is good," for "good" and "man" are not the same, since the predicate "good" is predicated also of bread and medicine (Poul Møllers efterladte Skrifter, 2det Bind Pg. 383). Formal logic therefore also concedes that every thing must be determined by its relations to other things, that identity as such contains difference, that he who directly declares what the thing is thereby also indirectly declares what it is *not*. But as the subject's identity with itself passes over, by means of the predicate, into difference, thinking must at the same time negate every difference that will not merge into the identity, and thereby hold fast the *agreement* between subject and predicate. To this end logic sets up its formal *principle of contradiction*: "*A* is not that which *A* is not;" or: "No thing is that which it is not, and is not that which it is;" or: "No thing can have predicates that contradict the thing;" or: "All pursuit of thought shall be consistent;" or: "The contradictory is at the same time the unthinkable." What the principle of identity is in the positive form, the principle of contradiction is in the negative. The formal advance consists in this, that the predicate's agreement with the subject, which according to the fundamental proposition of identity is assumed as immediately being, becomes reflected through by the application of the principle of contradiction, and that subjective thinking has found in this reflection its proper touchstone.

Remark 5. As the contradiction is the logical sting that wakes thinking from its slumber, and stimulates it to independent activity, so all true thinking also aims at overcoming and annulling the contradiction, in order to come again to rest and thorough satisfaction. Could thinking find rest in the unresolved contradiction, then black would be white, the circle four-cornered, truth a lie, the good evil, and the highest philosophy a sophistical deception. When the polemic between the defenders of the formal and of the speculative logic has at times taken on the appearance as though the former merely wished to exclude the contradiction, the latter to adopt it, this tension rests only upon a misunderstanding, which a closer consideration must make disappear. In formal respect, each of the contending parties is compelled to

concede to the contradiction the same significance. The defenders of formal logic must necessarily take the contradiction up into their thinking, immerse themselves in it, in order to be able to contest it. For it is not with the contradiction as with an outward enemy, whom the well-informed can avoid and thereby escape the danger; the contradiction pursues the thinker at every step, so that the true development of thought, as regards its formal consistency, consists precisely in contradicting the contradiction everywhere, or, what is the same, that all thorough thinking goes through sheer contradictions. On the other side, the speculative logic cannot defend the contradiction without also attacking it. For it wants precisely to prove that formal logic, by setting up its principle of contradiction and denying the contradiction its logical right, makes itself guilty of an indefensible contradiction. Regarded from the purely formal side, the inquiry is thus rather unfruitful; but the main thing is that the difference between the logic of the understanding and the speculative logic of reason be clearly and determinately apprehended. This real difference will come more closely into view when, from the double standpoint of the doctrine of thought, we consider: a) the concept of the contradiction, b) its relation to the thinking consciousness, and c) its scientific solution.

a) When the concepts are placed under the point of view of finitude, they can be separated by determinate definitions, and the rule holds that they must not be confounded; if on the contrary they are regarded in the light of infinity, then the one concept must be completed by the other, since every isolated concept-determination is defective and one-sided. This double way of seeing leads us to a determinate distinction between the *superficial* and the *thorough* contradiction. To confuse the like with the unlike, unity with multiplicity, or the whole with the parts, is to make oneself guilty of a superficial contradiction; but he who proves that likeness cannot be without unlikeness, that the concept of unity contains that of multiplicity, thereby points out the thorough contradiction. The difficulty of breaking down representation's finite and immediate barriers, without at the same time volatilizing the concepts' essential difference, stood clear before the Greek philosophers, who recognized how easily a dialectical ἀδολεσχία passes over into φλυαρία.

b) It lies then in the nature of the case that formal logic, which apprehends the

concepts in their finite relations, must polemicize against the contradiction and regard it as a fault in subjective thinking, while the speculative logic on the contrary refers the contradiction to existence's own ambiguity, and sets a considerable strength of thought in drawing it forth. As formal logic makes only a *critical* application of the contradiction, it proceeds from the presupposition that what contains a contradiction cannot exist. But that this way of seeing is insufficient is already evident from the fact that the thinking of the understanding, under the most various turns, has had to admit to itself that the very highest truths (creation, freedom) appear to it contradictory and incomprehensible. The speculative logic, which makes an *architectonic* use of the contradiction, can on the contrary employ it as a guide from the one sphere of existence to the other. In Plato's philosophical wonder, in the mystics' spirited paradoxes, in the Kantian antinomies, we everywhere sense the contradiction's dialectical pulse-beat. Without a philosophical problem there is no philosophical productivity; but to pose the true problem is, in other words, to apprehend the thorough contradiction.

- c) The fundamental proposition of formal logic: *Diversi respectus tollunt contradictionem*, must in the speculative logic be converted into: *Diversi respectus faciunt contradictionem*. To solve the contradiction by the help of *diversi respectus* is the same as to let the different regards fall away from one another and lose themselves in a reasoning of grounds; to reduce *diversi respectus* to their contradiction, in order to let them vanish in the deeper fundamental view, is to seek the absolute ground. Formal logic, which merely teaches us to think *about* the objects, takes these as they are given, and ascribes to things an existence closed in itself and indifferent to our subjective movements of thought. Under this presupposition it has its complete validity that the matter in question must be posited as τὸ αὐτό and regarded κατὰ τὸ αὐτό, πρὸς τὸ αὐτό, ἐν τῷ αὐτῷ χρόνῳ. But if it is already a questionable matter that the last of these demands properly cannot be fulfilled at all, since every Now unceasingly vanishes, then it is a still more essential defect that the subject, which sets the one regard up beside the other in order to hold fast an incessant *idem per idem*, must remain standing at consideration and description, without reaching thinking proper.

The speculative logic, which thinks through the genetic development of things and concepts, must therefore unceasingly set its paradox against the vulgar tautology. It is not denied that something, insofar as it is posited as one, is regarded from another point of view than when it is posited as several; or that what is determined as ground is determined according to another regard than when the same is determined as consequent. But what is most determinately denied is that these regards should fall indifferently apart from one another. There is *both* identity and difference; but both proceed from one and the same ground; the mere identity without difference is just as contradictory as the mere difference without identity; there is identity *because* there is difference; the determination that hits the identity hits also the difference: the identity is determined *as* difference. There is in the judgment *both* a subject *and* a predicate; but the subject is what the predicate is, precisely *because* subject and predicate are *not* the same. In the unceasing advance of thought and existence, or in the living movement, lies then the true solution of the contradiction.

§ 7.

The Logical Content of the Judgment.

Since the judgment has the significance of being the concept's logical presentation, it follows that its formal development cannot be separated from the concept's content. Insofar as the single judgment, considered in and for itself, expresses only a partial thought-result, it presents the concept only from a certain side, and the many isolated judgments can therefore be classified according to very different regards. Formal logic has divided the judgments: a) according to *quality* into: affirmative, negative and infinite; b) according to *quantity* into: singular, particular and general; c) according to *relation* into: categorical, hypothetical and disjunctive; d) according to *modality* into: assertoric, problematic and apodictic judgments. But these divisions have logical worth only insofar as they also show the gradual rising of insight and of the power of judgment.

By the help of the logical judgments, the speculative logic develops the concept's own inner and outer Sunderings or *diremptions*.

Remark 1. That the judgment is more than a merely subjective act of thinking, by which reflection satisfies itself without regard to objective being, is already expressed by the copula. Nevertheless, the separation and union of subject and predicate, as it takes place in the judgment, is not a movement that existence itself realizes: the immediately existing concept passes no judgment upon itself; the act of judging goes on in the thinking consciousness. Only the thought concept is as such the judgment's content; but this is in turn identical with the concept that is, or exists. Hence every judgment's logical dignity must be determined as well by the power of judgment it requires in the subject as by the objective concept-content it presents. It is then self-evident that the judgment's logical content must indeed be distinguished from its matter or empirical content. In such judgments as: Caius is a man, Pasop is a dog, the matter is indeed different, but the logical content still the same.

Remark 2. The qualitative judgment posits the thing as subject and the property as its predicate: the rose is red: the single is the universal. This identity of the single and the universal is as yet quite abstract, and therefore passes over into an equally abstract difference. The red rose is immediately determined by its color; but partly the rose itself can be thought to exist with another color, and still be a rose; partly the color can be met with in other objects, and still be red: the cheek is red, the wine is red, and so forth. In the qualitative judgments a contradiction therefore comes into view, which has its ground as much in existence as in thinking. As regards existence, the one thing is always determined in relation to the other; what the one object is in and for itself, it is in relation to the other, and it is for that reason continually subject to change: "At this moment the water is solid, in the next moment fluid," "The leaf that is now green will in some time be yellow." The existing subject unceasingly changes predicates, and the transience of things shows itself as an unbroken hovering between *being* and *not-being*. In consequence, judging thought must likewise move between *affirmation* and *negation*, and separate the judgments of quality into *positive* and *negative*. This separation, however, when more closely regarded, is no proper division; for the positive judgment shows itself in its abstract positivity just as one-sided and untrue as the abstractly negative. The single (the concrete thing with all its properties) cannot be immediately identical with the abstractly universal (the single property). The positive judgment can therefore be resolved a) into two tautological sentences: the single is single, the universal is universal, and β) into two superficial

contradictions: the single is a universal, and the universal is a single. Just as little can the merely negative judgment be isolated from the positive. When it is said: the rose is red, it is still presupposed that it has a color. As the negative judgment negates a determinate species-concept, this always happens under the presupposition that the genus-concept lying at the ground can be determined in another species. If on the contrary the single is held so isolated that the genus-concept is negated together with the species-concept, then the judgment itself falls outside the concept's sphere: the so-called *infinite* judgments (conscience is no elephant; reason is not four-cornered) are only thoughtless sentences. That the positive and the negative judgment must reflect each other is evident also from the fact that only a very slight degree of the power of judgment is needed in order to utter them each by itself; whereas the proper insight into the concept's essence rests precisely on this, that he who directly passes the positive judgment has the negative *in mente*, or conversely is conscious that the negative judgment holds only in virtue of the positive.

From the standpoint of the speculative logic, the judgment of quality shows itself as the existing concept's own diremption (Hegel: *Das Urtheil des Daseyns*). The existing things pass away; only the concepts in their universality endure: *the single, which is a universal*, is dissolved and vanishes in the stream of universality. But *the universal is also a single*: the concept expresses its existence in the change of things; hence single existence is reproduced just as unceasingly as it vanishes. — This diremption of the concept casts a new light upon the strife of the nominalists and the realists. The crass nominalists apprehended the qualitative judgment according to its immediate content, and thereby came to posit a multiplicity of subjects (*res*) without predicates; the one-sided realists, who kept to the judgment's abstract form, dissolved existence into an aggregate of predicates (fluttering *universalia*) without determinate subjects (*res*).

Remark 3. The qualitative judgment declares that the universal is to be sought in the single, that the predicate "*inheres in*" its subject, while on the other side it is recognized that the subject is to be subsumed under its predicate. Schematizing thought therefore undertakes to test the predicate's extension by determining the number of the subjects. This test is instituted in the judgments of *quantity*: "*This single, some singles, all singles are comprised under the universal.*" But such a counting-up has only a faint shadow of comprehension to show; reflection loses its way in an outward comparison

between the universal and the single. If the quantitative judgment is to carry with it any true advance in the cognition of the concept, then the comparison must pass over into a subsuming reflection, whereby the judgment itself is to be characterized as a *comprehensive* or *comprising* judgment. According to the qualitative judgment, the subject is immediately set out as the substrate (ὕποκείμενον) to which the predicate attaches; the predicate, which is chosen immediately, must therefore run through the reflection of affirmation and negation. But hereby it takes on a stamp of essential self-validity, which is presupposed in the comprehensive judgment, whose subjects are comprised — singly, partially or generally — under their predicate. Hence Hegel calls attention to the fact that the predicates adduced in examples of the comprehensive judgment (“Das Urtheil der Reflexion”) must be of another kind than those suited to quality. Such sentences as: man is mortal, things are useful, and so on, can serve as examples. The power of judgment that the comprehensive judgment requires can be determined as merely reflecting: through the subjects’ separate groups thought glimpses the predicate’s essential universality. The concept itself hereby comes into view as the *relation* of the existing things. But this relation has a double side, since it is both changeable, as the things’ phenomena, and at the same time unchangeable, as the things’ essence. If the relation is apprehended from its unchangeable side, the concept is determined as the things’ law, from which there is no exception; if on the contrary the relation is regarded from the point of view of changeableness, the concept is abstracted as existence’s rule, from which there are now more, now fewer exceptions. In the merely comprehensive judgment the latter way of considering is the predominant one: universality is determined only as allness, and the general is not yet posited as the true universal (empiricism).

Remark 4. The division of the judgments according to their *relation* has the logical significance that the general (the collective universality) is developed into true universality, whereby the relation between the genus-concept and its species-concepts is essentially determined. The categorical judgment’s predicate expresses the subject’s inner nature and essence. The comprehensive sentence: All speaking animals are men, first finds its true form in the categorical utterance: The speaking animal is, as such, man; whereby thinking presses through the empirical mark into the concept’s essence, and finds the thing’s category. If the categorical judgment’s content is developed further, herein lies that the thing cannot express its immediately determinate concept

(its species) without answering to its category (i.e. its essential general concept, the genus). This relation is expressly brought out in the *hypothetical* judgment's different forms: If *A* is, then *B* is; if *A* is *B*, then *C* must be *D*, and so on. In this development, experience passes over into insight and comprehension proper. The fact vanishes in its contingency, for the question is not primarily whether *A* or *B* actually exists; but thought's law is raised to existence's norm; for it is expressly recognized that an *A* that cannot be *thought* without *B* cannot *be* without *B* either. — The real and the intellectual connection are posited in their essential unity; but this identity, when more closely regarded, again leaves an essential contradiction behind. Although *B* is posited in and with *A*, *A* and *B* are still by no means the same. According to pure thinking they stand to each other as ground and consequent, cause and effect, but this relation is as yet wholly formal; according to their existence they fall immediately apart from each other, and stand as *the condition* to *the conditioned*. Reflection, which still hovers between the fact's contingency and the thought-law's necessity, seeks an unconditioned as foundation for all mutual conditions. This foundation thinking first wins in the *disjunctive* judgment: *A* is either *B* or *C*, and so on. The subject *A* now expresses the genus-concept in its concrete universality, while the genus's determinate species are separately posited in the predicate: "Man is (according to sex) either man or woman." The essential relation between the genus and its species thus finds its logically all-sided expression in the disjunctive judgment. As the species-concepts taken together are subordinated to the genus-concept, they show themselves at the same time as mutually coordinated. The disjunction consists in this, that the species-concepts exclude one another, because they, each for itself, are the genus's contentful appearances; they are thus *contrary* because they are *contradictory*, and contradictory because they are contrary.

That the *division* of the judgment, when apprehended from a speculative standpoint, is a concept-sundering or *primal division* (*Ur=Deling*), is according to relation wholly evident. In order to make *the absolute* comprehensible, Schelling ("Philosophie und Religion," Pag. 11–13) has therefore also availed himself of relation's forms. "The first form in which absoluteness can be posited is the categorical." But since the absolute, as such, is *neither infinite nor finite, neither ideal nor real, neither subjective nor objective*, the productive intuition must step in and fill the negative reflection's emptiness. "The second form for the absolute's appearance in reflection is the hypothetical." When a

subject and an object are, then the absolute is the identical essence of both. Subject and object *condition* each other, but the absolute is their *unconditioned* foundation, their positive unity regarded *sub specie æternitatis*. “The third form in which reflection likes to express the absolute, and which is especially known through *Spinoza*, is the disjunctive.” There is only one substance, but this can be regarded either as purely ideal or as immediately real. Just because the absolute substance, according to the disjunctive judgment, is either wholly subjective or wholly objective, therefore it is, according to the categorical form of expression, neither the one nor the other.

Remark 5. The comprehensive judgment presents the concept’s content in *empirical* sunderings; the disjunctive reduces the empirical content to a moment in the concept’s *logical* sunderings. The intellectual world and the real world must accordingly be measured by each other: the thought concept must have its existence, and every existing thing must in turn answer to its concept. This relation, totalized in itself, is now further illuminated as we consider the division of the judgments according to their *modality*. The *assertoric* judgment expresses the obtaining relation between thing and concept in a wholly immediate way: “The house is well built; the plan is excellent; the treatise is scientific.” But what in one respect answers to the concept can in another respect deviate from it. Against the simple affirmation stands the straightforward denial, and the judgment becomes *problematic*. The problem thus developed can now neither be solved by a merely empirical demonstration, since all actuality must be valued according to the concept, nor by a merely formal operation of thought, since the merely thought concept to which no actuality corresponds is just as untrue as a merely palpable actuality that contradicts its concept. The insight that actuality has its truth in the concept, or what is the same, that the concept completed in its own inner consistency has found its corresponding outer, is presented in the *apodictic* judgment.

As the difference between the thought concept (*universale in mente*) and the existing concept (*universale in re*) comes into view in modality, so modality in turn can be apprehended from a subjective and an objective standpoint. — It is characteristic of the Kantian philosophy that it regards the categories of modality as “the postulates of empirical thinking” (jfr. *Kritik der reinen Vernunft*, Pag. 217–223), whose determinations do not concern the object at all, but fall wholly within the thinking subject’s own reflection. What agrees with experience’s formal conditions is *possible*;

what is in connection with its material conditions is *actual*; what finally is determined according to the essential unity of both kinds of conditions is *necessary*. By the help of the problematic, assertoric and apodictic judgments Kant measured the certainty of human cognition, and determined the logical relation between *opining*, *faith* and *knowledge*. What is true in the Kantian theory is that the concept can, without regard to its material existence, have a purely logical existence in the subjective consciousness (*universale in mente*); but the system's nominalist limitation shows itself in this, that the absolute concept, whose infinite validity, grounded in the divine thinking (*universale in mente divina*), is apodictic, is confused with the relative concepts, which have an abstract being *in mente nostra*, and whose real existence must therefore always be regarded as problematic, until experience brings a decisive certainty. — Hegel has therefore rightly transformed the division of the modality-judgments into the concept's own primal division (Das Urtheil des Begriffs). The fundamental thought herein is that a concept that exists only in our own consciousness does not deserve the name of true concept. It is then either a mere representation, an imaginary magnitude, of which the imagination can produce as many as you please, or else an abstract side of the concept, which consequently has not yet been sufficiently thought through. When the judgment is adequate, and the diremption complete, the predicate, which posits the concept's concrete universality, must have the same content as the subject, which presents its immediate singleness. The whole concept has, according to the predicate, a reflected-through, logical inwardness (*in mente*): this is the concept's infinite ideality and freedom; but, according to the subject, the whole concept is at the same time posited in a corresponding, outer actuality (*in re*), which makes up its determinate reality. The diremption is thus driven to its utmost boundary; but since subject and predicate have now also expressly won the same content, the copula itself is developed into a full, real being, in which the concept's extremes join together into concrete unity.

§ 8.

The Logical Totality of the Judgment.

Formal logic has further divided the judgments: a) with respect to the real nexus of subject and predicate, into *analytic* and *synthetic*; b) with respect to the mutual

agreement of the different sentences, into: α) *agreeing* (*propositiones consentientes*) and β) *conflicting* (*prop. oppositæ*) judgments, such that the former again, according to their subdivisions, are either *identical* (*pares, æquipollentes*), *super=* and *subordinate* (*subordinatæ*) or *coordinate* (*coordinatæ*), the latter partly *contradictory*, partly *contrary*.

Since every judgment's content must always be explicated by the help of another judgment, the speculative logic regards all *single* judgments as moments in *the judgment's* — i.e. the concept-sundering's — *own logical totality*.

Remark 1. By examining how we come from a judgment's subject to its predicate, it may appear partly that the subject according to its concept already contains the predicate, partly that a special experience is presupposed in order to join the predicate to its subject. In the first case the judgment is called *analytic*, because one needs only to make distinct to oneself (analyze) the subject's content in order to find the predicate; in the latter case, on the contrary, *synthetic*, since predicate and subject must each be sought for itself as separate concepts, which first upon a logical deliberation let themselves be united. A closer consideration shows, however, that it stands with this division as with all the rest; it too has only a relative validity. The true analytic judgment is already as such synthetic, since every predicate must join a new determination to its subject; likewise every synthetic judgment is analytic, since the predicate's union with the subject would lack all ground if it did not consistently follow from the subject's peculiar character. Without the analytic development, comprehension proper would be wholly wanting; without the application of synthesis, thinking could make no advance (Kant: Erleuterungs= und Erweiterungsurtheile). As the analytic judgments most nearly express pure thinking, so the synthetic belong chiefly under experience's field of vision; but the infinite unity of both lies at the ground of true scientific cognition. As synthesis refers to representation and the intellectual intuition, so analysis refers to reflection and the pure insight; where synthesis most nearly presupposes difference and opposition, analysis rests on identity and contradiction. The sentence: The ground has a consequent, looks at first glance like a purely synthetic judgment. The ground and the consequent are represented each for itself, just as in the sentence: The door has a lock, one first represents to oneself the door, then the lock, and finally grasps them both in their union. But if the joining of subject and predicate is to express something more than a mere fact, then the synthesis must proceed from an analysis. That the latter sentence is hard to transform into a purely

analytic judgment lies precisely in its empirical character. The identity of subject and predicate is a merely represented union, upon which the fundamental proposition of contradiction finds only a *critical application*. The whole analysis aims solely at assuring the thinking subject that in the concept of a door there is nothing that contradicts the concept of a lock. But that no one who speaks of a door that has a conscience finds credence proves, after all, that analytic thinking everywhere keeps a watchful eye on experience's synthetic judgments. The first sentence: The ground has a consequent, lets itself on the contrary be at once transformed into an analytic judgment, just because it is of purely logical nature. There lies no more in the ground than what comes into view in the consequent; for the ground is ground only insofar as it has a consequent, and as the consequent is, so must the ground also be. For pure insight the two concepts show themselves as one concept; what the one is *implicite*, the other expresses *explicite*. The consequent is thus ground for the ground, and the ground a consequent of the consequent. But just as necessary is nevertheless the essential difference of the two. The thorough contradiction shows itself precisely in this, that analyzing thought each time comes to posit their abstract identity when it wants to comprehend their pure difference, and conversely must fix their abstract difference when it wants to posit their pure identity. This contradiction reflection cannot solve except by taking synthesis and intuition to its aid. It is first by means of the intellectual intuition, the sound unprejudiced glance, that analysis's abstract identity, integrated by synthesis's immediate difference, steps out into determinate real opposition. It is therefore an error when many have supposed that dialectical thinking should carry with it disdain for intuitive cognition, since much rather, if it truly understands itself, it must seek to penetrate and illuminate the real content of the represented world.

Remark 2. As the sensing consciousness finds the multiplicity of things immediately given, so also representational thinking comes to pass a host of different judgments, and thereby to develop for itself a circle of sporadic cognitions. It therefore becomes necessary to examine how these judgments and cognitions stand to one another. For although consciousness in an immediate way (— faith, geniality —) may possess an intellectual world whose harmony and consistency can later be justified by the testing reflection, still the uncultivated person, who receives an aggregate of heterogeneous influences, intellectual as well as sensory, may often gather in his

consciousness such representations and concepts as, when brought closer together, can by no means be reconciled in one circle of cognition. From the subjective point of view, science must therefore be regarded as the highest form in which a coherent view of life can be developed and presented; and since logic is the general foundation of all scientific culture, it cannot remain standing at a piecemeal apprehension of the judgment's essence and significance, but must also demonstrate the different judgments' inner nexus and totality.

As regards formal logic's division of *propositiones consentientes*, the doctrine of the *identical* judgments finds its determinate application not only in rhetoric, where one and the same fundamental thought is to be made intuitable from several different sides, but even in pure dialectic, which in its category-analysis makes distinct the concept's transitions and nuances. To determine more closely the fluid boundary that separates the all-sided development of concept-identity from tautology must, however, be left to the presenting subject's scientific tact.

With the *super= and subordinate* judgments it stands as with the *super= and subordinate* concepts, only that the criteria by which the logical subordination is expressed in the judgment's form are determinately brought out. It is then presupposed that the judgments in question must have either predicate or subject in common. If the predicates are identical, then the superordinate judgment has the superordinate subject; for the predicate's extension is in this case measured by the subject (All men are mortal, all animals are mortal); if the subjects are common, then the superordinate judgment has the subordinate predicate; for the predicate's lower (more concrete) concept must always be subsumed under the higher (All men have sense-organs, all men have eyes).

As regards the *opposed* judgments, it is presupposed that the talk turns on one and the same object, wherefore formal logic also sets up the rule that the *contrary* judgments must have the same subject, the *contradictory* also the same predicate. These and similar juxtapositions serve only to justify all the more the proposition that the concept's totality can first come into view in a totality of connected judgments.

Remark 3. What has already been said of the absolute concept — namely, that it takes up all relative concepts as moments and reflexes in its inner totality — can now also be applied to the judgment, regarded from the standpoint of the higher logic. As it is the same thinking I and the same judging understanding that utter

themselves in all the individual's thoughts and utterances, so it is also a proof of cognition's thoroughness, depth and coherence that the one judgment lets itself be deduced from the other. While formal logic therefore concerns itself most nearly with the judgments in their sporadic plurality, the speculative treats of the judgment, according to its essential unity, as that concept-sundering which with the concept's development runs through its different, lower and higher stages. According to the foregoing explication of the judgment's logical content, which began with quality's (existence's) positive judgment, and ended with modality's (the concept's) apodictic judgment, it has already been established that the latter has taken the former up into itself, or, what is the same, that the apodictic judgment is the positive judgment's truth; likewise every outward separation of the formal and the real nexus between subject and predicate must lose its significance when we hold fast the result won above, that the judgment in all its forms is both analytic and synthetic. To assure oneself that the categorical judgment presupposes analysis just as much as synthesis, one needs only to make distinct to oneself the transition from the general to the universal. That all men are mortal can first be known with complete certainty when it is seen that the concept of mortality is contained in the concept of man's natural existence. The separation of concept and actuality, which in objective respect makes the judgment hypothetical, makes it in subjective sense also problematic, and the disjunction whereby a given genus-concept is sundered into its species is in turn a presupposition from which the apodictic judgment results. For since the apodictic judgment is to express the identity of actuality and concept, it necessarily requires a disjunction. For no actual existence is purposive, beautiful or good in general; but every thing that answers to *its* determination is always good in *its* kind and in *its* species. Many unfair and unjust judgments, passed upon moral actions as well as upon artistic and scientific performances, arise not merely from the fact that the critics often find it most convenient to keep to an immediate estimate, and therefore prefer to employ the assertoric mode of expression; but the fundamental fault often lies in this, that the proper point of view is displaced, because the category under which the object in question is to be subsumed is missed altogether.

The categorical judgment receives its closer delimitation by means of the disjunctive, and when this is faulty, the apodictic must also become false and one-sided. But just for this reason it becomes necessary to distinguish between the concept's

one-sided and its all-sided expression. Although the whole concept is present in each of its principal sides, it is still not completed in any single moment. Hence it is also impossible to present the whole concept in any isolated judgment whatsoever; for if the judgment has a rich and concrete content, its moments must be *analyzed* in a series of different judgments; and every judgment whose content is limited and one-sided must be synthetically integrated by another judgment, this again by another, and so forth. — The wish to express the highest concept in a single judgment hangs together with the endeavor to preserve philosophy's kernel in certain determinate principal propositions. True enough, a contentful truth can be expressed in an adequate judgment; but even the most pregnant proposition will at once sink down into an empty phrase when it is torn out of the connection in which it fits, when it is no longer recognized as the result of a preceding or the presupposition of a following development. Hence the profoundest philosophy has always been the greatest offense to so-called sound common sense; for it lies in the nature of the case that the deeper the thoughts a philosophy contains, and the less trouble one takes to press into its spirit, the more easily will its single theses and utterances appear offensive, often even ridiculous.

Remark 4. The difference between the formal and the speculative logic's apprehension of the judgment's relation to the concept can be still further illuminated by looking to *definition* and *division*.

Insofar as the judgment's predicate expresses what the subject according to its concept properly is, the adequate judgment can also be regarded as the concept's definition. According to their immediate difference the concepts can be separated and characterized just as exactly as the sensory objects. It has therefore often been regarded as a proof of clear and acute thinking to advance from definition to definition in the course of scientific development. By the definition the concept is held fast as a magnitude bounded in itself, firm and constant, which under the different juxtapositions and turns is to keep the same value, and since every concept must contain something peculiar whereby it is known from all others, adequate definitions will always have their significance as contributions toward clearing up meaning and securing linguistic usage. Nevertheless it is chiefly the so-called exact sciences in which definition plays a considerable role, just because thinking is here more mechanical than organic. For philosophical cognition, on the contrary, such definitions have a very subordinate

worth. The ideal content that lies in the philosophical root-words, such as: essence, ground, substance, and so on, can no more be held fast in isolated definitions than the soul in an anatomized body. The more thinking is lost in atomistic concepts and sharply bounded definitions, the sooner will it approach the comfortless result that truth itself is unnameable, incomprehensible and ungraspable; for no living spirit lets itself be caught in a net of finite definitions. Formal logic has already recognized that the *genetic* definition stands above the *nominal*; but first in the stream of dialectic can the relative concept's rise, culmination and decline be clearly mirrored, and the genetic definition carried through. Since now every judgment contains a relative definition, and since the one concept-moment must always be defined by the other, it is evident from this that the absolute concept's content can be presented only in a *system of judgments*.

To distinguish itself from mere description, the nominal definition must characterize the object by determining its concept, and delimit this by a statement of *genus proximum* and *differentia specifica*. But here a double regard is to be observed: *partly* the concept must be sought out in its immediate, empirical existence, and its different forms and marks "*exposed*," in order to find out its characteristic — and here it will matter whether one seizes an essential determination or merely brings out an outer mark (synoptic and heuristic classification); *partly* singleness with its concrete peculiarity falls away, since the definition does not present the concept's whole content, but only states its general outline. The inner determinateness and separateness that the definition renounces makes itself known in the logical division.

The transition from definition to division can take place by a double way: a) partly the *differentia specifica* stated in the definition can be set against another specific difference falling under the same *genus*; for when man, for example, is said to be a *rational* animal, herein already lies that there are also animals that have no reason; which again is the same as that the animal is *either* rational *or* irrational, or: that all animals can be divided into the rational and the irrational; b) partly the defined concept can be apprehended as a new *genus*, which within its own boundaries again yields new *differentiæ specificæ*, and thereby sunders itself into new species: the rational animal is either religious or irreligious, i.e. men can be divided into the religious and the irreligious. In the first case the disjunctive judgment can immediately be set out as the division's logical expression, so that the concept that is divided (*divisum*) is posited

as subject, while the members of division (*membra dividantia*) find their place in the binomial or polynomial predicate. In the latter case a subdivision (*subdivisio*) arises, as one of the predicate's members is again made subject in a new disjunctive judgment, which then so far can be regarded as a consequence of the preceding. So long as the disjunctive judgment is not apprehended as the division's logical form, it still lacks the decisive determinateness whereby it distinguishes itself from a merely problematic mode of expression. The sentence: *A* is either *B* or *C*, can namely be resolved into two problematic judgments: *A* is perhaps, when more closely determined, *B*, not at all *C*; and: *A* is perhaps *C*, not *B*. Under this presupposition "either" — "or" expresses an abstract exclusion, which rests in the *principium exclusi medii*. To characterize the disjunctive judgment more closely, the sentence: *A* is either *B* or *C* or *D*..., must be equivalent to the sentence: *A* is both *B* and *C* and *D*... The disjunction's: either — or contains at the same time the conjunction's "both" — "and," from which the division's relation to the concept is already evident. For if we grasp the disjunction from the connecting as well as the excluding side, herein lies that the same concept at once separates itself from itself into a series of separate concepts, which mutually exclude one another, and nevertheless comprises and binds them all within itself by repeating itself in each single one. Thus it becomes necessary to seek out a medium in which the exclusion and the connection can be thought united. *A*, which in one respect is both *B* and *C*, is in another respect either *B* or *C*. Since both regards lie in the disjunction's own essence, formal thinking must bring out a universal determination in which the separateness comes into view, and thus fixes the determinate *ground of division* (*fundamentum divisionis*). It is, for example, a determination common to all triangles to have 3 angles and 3 sides. But no actual triangle has angles and sides in abstract generality, but always in determinate proportion. If now the division is undertaken, it appears quite clearly that the concept's identity at the same time grounds its difference, or in other words, that *diversi respectus* pass over into each other. For one cannot divide the triangles into three-sided and three-sided; for here is an identity without difference; nor into right-angled and isosceles; for here is a difference that lacks its identity, or, as it is said, the ground of division is not held fast. But when we say: the triangles are either equilateral or non-equilateral, then it lies in the division's logical nature that they are the one because they are the other. The contradiction that hides itself in the disjunctive judgment — that *A* must be either *B* or *C*, and yet is also posited

as *B* when it is posited as *A* — finds its resolution in the division, which sunders and binds the opposed concepts.

What *the division* is from the empirical standpoint, the concept-diremption or *the primal division* is from the logical. All the rules formal logic sets up for division point to this difference. That the division shall determine the concept's extension by a statement of all the genus's species means, in other words, that it shall exhaust the genus-concept's content. But since every empirically characteristic mark can always occasion new divisions or subdivisions, without insight into the nature of the genus and the species being thereby increased, such a complete enumeration is often as useless as it is difficult. "Whether to the 67 species of parrots yet a dozen more can be found is indifferent for the exhaustion of the genus-concept" (Hegel). It is quite another matter that detailed classifications may be necessary in order to complete empirical knowledge; but they can have no properly logical worth. A division can often be complete and correct without therefore being thorough, just as conversely it can have a deeper significance without being logically correct (fantastic and comic divisions). It is further conceded in formal logic that the divided concept must be present whole and undivided in each of the members of division; whereby the logical division distinguishes itself from the real partition (*partitio*). But from this it can also be seen that the true division is grounded in the concept's primal division. When a sensory object is divided, each part is only a piece. Hence it is also only the elementary and lifeless things that can be taken apart and put together without suffering harm, and that precisely because their concept is so wholly external; the living organism, which expresses the concept's essence, suffers on the contrary by every dismemberment, since it is contrary to the concept's intellectual singleness to let itself be carved up. — As regards, now, the relation between the judgment and the division in general, they both have the common determination of presenting the concept's diremption. The criterion for such a diremption is always this, that the concept is separated into two extremes, each of which for itself in its form contains the whole concept; but while the judgment most nearly renders the concept's single sides and reflexes, and so far lets itself be expressed in a determinate sentence, the division on the contrary refers to different concept-spheres, so that its content can be explicated only in a totality of judgments. As each of the judgment's extremes, by the copula "is," intimates a medium in which they meet, so it also lies in the division's ground that the opposed

concept-spheres must join together in a higher and more concrete totality.



Third Chapter.

The Validity of the Subjective Concept: Inference and Proof.

§ 9.

The Logical Requisites of Inference.

The mutual relation of the judgments is expressed in the inference, that act of thinking whereby a judgment's validity is derived from one or several other judgments. According to formal logic there must be distinguished in every inference a) one or more presuppositions, premises, b) a conclusion-sentence (*conclusum* or *conclusio sensu minus proprio*) and c) the whole act of thinking by which the conclusion-sentence is derived from the premises (*conclusio sensu proprio*). The inference's simplest and yet at the same time complete form is the categorical syllogism. The conclusion's subject, the minor concept (*terminus minor*), and its predicate, the major concept (*terminus major*), must in the syllogism each for itself be joined with a third concept, which makes up the middle of the extremes (*terminus medius*). Of the two premises formed by this joining, that in which the major concept is referred to the middle term is called *propositio major*; that, on the contrary, which unites the middle term with the minor concept, *propositio minor*. When the middle term's relation and significance are distorted, paralogisms and sophisms arise.

The speculative logic presents the inference as the extreme totalities' dialectical transition into their medium, i.e. as a joining-together in which the extremes are at once posited and annulled.

Remark 1. As expression of subjective thinking, the judgment proceeds from a deliberation; every deliberation takes place in virtue of a judging; thus the one

judgment has its grounding in the other, or, what is equivalent, the judgment has its truth in the inference. Every judgment that does not result from an inference still stands as a postulate, which can be both true and false, and for that reason both affirmed and denied. If the judgment is regarded as answer to a question, then the inference contains the answering of a double question, and thereby expresses the judgment's ground. If it is thus asked: "What is God?" then the preliminary answer: "God is a spirit," is to be regarded as an adequate judgment. But if the judgment is to be grounded, then the question resolves itself into two others: "What is God, since he is called spirit, and what is spirit, since it is predicated of God?" There is thus sought a third concept, which expresses the identity of the subject's and the predicate's unity and difference — an advance whereby the moment of separateness first comes into its full right.

When the difference between subject and predicate does not come forward with such independence that the concept grounding the unity of both needs to show its relation to each of the members in a separate judgment, the conclusion can be derived from one premise, and the inference is characterized as immediate. Formal logic distinguishes several kinds of immediate inferences, and sets up rules for their application. We thus obtain: a) the inference of identity (*ratiocinium ad æquipollens*), b) the inference of subordination (*ratiocinium ab universali ad particulare*), c) the inference of opposition (*ratiocinium ad oppositum*) and finally d) the inference of conversion (*ratiocinium per conversionem*). But since none of all these inferences leads to any deeper insight into the essence of the concept or of the judgment, they can only be used as simple exercises of the understanding.

Remark 2. It is self-evident that the so-called categorical syllogism contains all the requisites of inference, since it is first in it that the conclusion's subject and predicate are comprehended in their independence, and yet at the same time find the separate concept that makes up the union of both. Everything thus rests essentially on the middle concept's significance and relation to the extremes. Formal logic has for that reason set up the following rules:

- 1) *Ex meris negativis nihil sequitur*; quite naturally, since the negation, when it holds for both premises, must cut off every connection between the extremes and the middle concept.

- 2) *Ex meris particularibus nihil sequitur*; for two particular premises make the connection of the extremes and the middle concept doubtful.
- 3) *Conclusio sequi debet partem debiliorem præmissarum*. For nothing can be posited in the conclusion that is not *implicite* presupposed in the juxtaposition of the two premises.

Remark 3. The ambiguity that *diversi respectus* contain, in that they both produce and annul the contradiction, shows itself most clearly of all in syllogistic. For since every thing can be regarded from more than one side, one can always find for a conclusion's subject and predicate more than one middle concept, just as conversely the middle concept and its relations can in turn be apprehended from several different points of view (Leibnitz's combinatorial analysis — Plouquet's calculus). As subjective reflection hereby develops itself into formal freedom, and uses this freedom arbitrarily to set truth's semblance in truth's place, syllogistic passes over into sophistry. The sophisms of the ancients do not, however, all bear the same stamp; for while some, as for example the so-called *Elenchus in dictione*:

mus rodit caseum,
mus est syllaba,
ergo: syllaba rodit caseum.

are so crass that they must be regarded as logical “Kjældermænd” (flat puns), others on the contrary (— ψευδόμενος, σωρείτης, φάλαγκός —) conceal a dialectical sting, and thereby form a kind of holding-points for acute thinking. It is the contradictions of the represented world and of the so-called sound understanding that have given the first impulses to philosophical movements of thought; but so long as a more determinate method was still lacking, the deeper reflection had to keep to sporadic παράδοξα, and make the problems intuitable by giving them a piquant mask. Only as vehicles for ingenious plays of thought do the sophisms have a relative significance; when on the contrary they are cultivated for their own sake, they testify to philosophy's vanity and self-dissolution. Even the theory of the refutation of the sophisms is without logical interest; for he who has first learned to think consistently and thoroughly will in every case know how to unmask the false, and a reasoning that departs altogether from all sound thinking does not even deserve to be refuted. Least of all can the rules for

such refutations be treated in the doctrine of inference; for the syllogism is only the general form under which the sophists insinuate the most heterogeneous distortions. Aristotle's treatise *περὶ σοφιστικῶν ἐλέγχων* therefore yields only a meagre profit for logic, but is nonetheless a document remarkable for the history of philosophy, insofar as it contains a testimony to the enormous thought-empiricism, the wealth of reflection-experiments, in which Greek philosophy had to try itself before the systematic logician could appear.

Remark 4. As the judgment is the subjective thought-form that corresponds to the objective concept-sundering, so also the syllogism is to be regarded as a silhouette, drawn by the understanding, of that infinite circuit in which the concept's separated extremes seek their concrete unity. The difference between the formal and the speculative apprehension of the inference's essence and significance rests then chiefly on this, that the logic of the understanding sets up the premises as given sentences, whose middle term must be taken as it is found, while the logic of reason on the contrary reduces the premises to opposed concept-totalities, whose medium develops itself out of their dialectical relation; in the logic of the understanding the conclusion (i.e. the *conclusum*) is a consequent sentence, a result the thinking subject itself draws out; according to the logic of reason it is on the contrary the sundered totalities' mutual transition, in which they integrate each other — the joining-together in which they both find their subsistence. In the formal inference of the understanding, the syllogism, the single members are set out in an outward succession; in the true inference of reason they are simultaneous. Thus the coherence of the universe consists in an inference: the sun draws the planets to its centre; every planet in turn flees the attracting sun, and the medium of the centrifugal and the centripetal force is the elliptical movement. The animal development of life goes on in the form of inference; for the organism is the medium between the life-moments' undivided unity in the soul's inner and the functions' multiplicity in the bodily outer. Freedom is an inference: it presupposes itself in its endowment, actualizes itself in its striving, possesses itself in its result, and the means is always medium between purpose and execution. The examples here adduced certainly do not further explain either the universe, life or freedom, but they serve nonetheless to make intuitable the truth that the inference is the objective form of reason, and to make intelligible the Hegelian utterance: "der Schluß ist nicht nur vernünftig, sondern alles Vernünftige ist ein Schluß."

§ 10.

The Formal Validity of Inference.

In order to express its true logical content, the inference must run through several stages of development, and the forms of inference can therefore be divided: a) according to *quality*, into the inference of separateness, of singleness and of universality, such that the *terminus medius*, which here expresses only an abstract concept-determination, runs through a threefold schema: $E-S-A$, $S-E-A$ and $E-A-S$, in order to mediate the extremes; b) according to *quantity*, into the inference of allness, induction and analogy; reflection, which empirically gathers and separates the concept's essential universality and existential singleness, strives at this stage out beyond the rule toward the immanent law; c) according to *relation*, into the categorical, hypothetical and disjunctive inference, whereby the concept's ideal sundering and actuality's real sundering reflect each other with such necessity that the totality comes into view in all forms.

According to the speculative logic, the inference's absolute truth is to be explicated in a system of three inferences.

Remark 1. The so-called figures of inference, of which Aristotle set up the first three, and later logicians (Galen) added a fourth, are distinguished in formal logic according to the place the middle term occupies in the two premises. Thus the first figure is characterized by the middle term's being subject in the major premise and predicate in the minor; according to the second figure the middle term is predicate, according to the third figure subject, in both premises. The fourth figure, in which the middle term is subject in the minor premise and predicate in the major, forms a superfluous contrast to the first. To each of these figures determinate rules are then attached: as regards the first figure, the major premise must be universal, the minor affirmative, and the whole subsumption follow the general norm: *nota notæ est nota rei ipsius*. In the second figure, whose major premise must likewise be universal, the one premise is affirmative and the other negative; the third figure demands that one of the premises be universal, and the minor premise affirmative; the fourth figure is artificially produced by various conversions. This schematizing shows that each of the concept's principal sides must come forward as *terminus medius* in order that the joining of the extremes may be fully grounded; but, isolated from their logical content

and mutual connection, these abstract forms of inference have no deeper significance. By reducing the one figure to the other, formal logic awakens a presentiment of their inner connection.

Remark 1. The inference of quality has the mark that it always keeps to the immediate difference and unity of the concept-determinations. What is only a single cannot as such be a universal. In order that two such abstract outer members may be united, a middle determination is required, which in one respect coincides with singleness, in another respect with universality; this middle determination is the *separate*. “Bravery is a virtue, Alexander has shown bravery; Alexander is virtuous.” The qualitative inference thus begins with the first figure: $E-S-A$. That this inference is very imperfect appears upon closer consideration. The conclusion, whose validity was to be derived from the premises, itself conditions their truth. For if the conclusion is merely to declare that everyone who is brave is also, without any regard to his other qualities, virtuous, then the conclusion is only a tautological repetition of the *propositio major*, and thinking makes no advance whatever. If on the contrary it is to be expressly brought out that a single, determinate individual is virtuous on account of *his* bravery, then the inference is false, since the conclusion in this case contains more than can be derived from the premises. By bringing out another quality in the individual concerned, one can therefore also come to an entirely opposite result. “The sensuous nature is not virtuous, Alexander has a sensuous nature, therefore he is not virtuous.” Whether a separate and a universal concept-determination let themselves be united or not depends then upon the concrete single existence, which according to its nature always has several different qualities. Singleness must accordingly be laid at the ground of the joining of the separate and the universal, whereby the transition takes place to the second schema (i.e. formal logic’s third figure): $S-E-A$: “Man is rational, man is mortal; a mortal is rational.” The separate determination “mortal” and the universal determination “rational” are found united in every human individual. More closely regarded, this conclusion likewise expresses no proper inference. The singleness or the individual must simply be sought out, and when it is found, then the separate and the universal determinations that inhere in it are at once discovered by analyzing thought. Hence it is also in itself quite indifferent which of the two extremes one will in this case make *terminus major*; the conclusion: “a mortal is rational,” can without further ado be turned about: “a rational being is mortal.” The proper advance

consists consequently in the middle concept's contingency being expressly brought out. — In order to form the true middle between the separate and the universal, the single must itself be determined as separate; this can happen only in virtue of universality. With this presupposition the transition is made to the third schema (formal logic's second figure): $E-A-S$. Insofar as this form of inference is regarded in its connection with the two preceding, both its premises can be said to be formally grounded. For the *propositio major*: $S-A$ stands as conclusion in the second schema, and the *propositio minor*: $E-A$ results from the first. Nevertheless the middle concept is here too insufficient, since the qualitative universality falls outside its singleness and separateness. This defect comes into view in the inference's ending in a negative result: "No man is four-legged, the lion is four-legged; the lion is not man."

It stands with the qualitative inference as with the qualitative judgment; its moments can, according to their unity and difference, be reduced to tautological sentences and superficial contradictions. *The single is only single*, insofar as it is held fast one-sidedly and immediately. "This apple" is, for example, a single, for one is to think neither of its manifold qualities, nor of its likeness and unlikeness with others. But every other apple is again, taken by itself, a single, a "this," which is immediately pointed out. The consideration of the existing things thus leads us from the single to the single, without any separateness or universality. This tautology shows itself at the same time as a superficial contradiction: by repeating itself, *the single becomes universal*, and since this repetition cannot be thought without the difference between the several singlenesses coming into view, *each single must immediately be determined as a separate*. By analyzing the concrete singleness one can separate it into a plurality of universal determinations. The single apple has thus a certain fragrance, taste, form, weight and so on, and when all the universal determinations are separated, the thing's singleness vanishes at the same time. As the nominalist annuls *universalia* in *res*, so the realist dissolves *res* into its *universalia*. If now each *universale* is held fast for itself, we have again both a tautology and a contradiction. "Fragrance is fragrance, without regard to that which is fragrant; taste is taste, without regard to that which tastes:" *the universal is universal*. But as the fragrance, the taste, the color and the weight are each in particular posited as qualitative universalities or universal qualities, each *universale* becomes itself single: *the universal is a single*. Although now every universal determination must be observed for itself, it still cannot be defined except by

the help of another universal determination, so that the difference between *universalia* is by no means indifferent: *the universal is a separate*. It is further evident from this that the all-sided determination of separateness is the inference's aim — an aim the qualitative inference cannot realize. In order to ground the true unity of the single and the universal, separateness must at once be identical with both extremes, and yet at the same time different from them both. But now it lies in quality's own concept that the separate, when it is held against the single, becomes itself a single, and when it is set against the universal, is transformed into an abstract universality. Hence the *terminus medius* alternates between the three different extremities: *S*, *E* and *A*. Thus one can, for example, lay the genus, the separate, at the ground of a joining of the individuals and the universe. In its difference from individual and universe the genus is then hypostatized and personified. But just as immediately one can then also turn the whole form of inference about, and declare that the genus exists only in the single individuals, that the universal must not be thought separate from the single, and thus make the individual *terminus medius* for genus and universe. If it must now further be conceded that the individuals unceasingly dissolve and pass away, then one needs only to invert the form of inference once more, and lay a universal quality (water, air, fire) at the ground of a conclusion of individuals and genus. Since it is now an impossibility to state how a universal element of nature could have sundered itself into separate existences, this inference gives no positive result whatever, but expresses only the negative truth that the separate genera and their individuals could not exist if they did not have a common natural medium. By leaping from the one middle concept to the other, naturalism always confuses the condition with the creating ground, and the philosophy of atheism characterizes itself by thinking's never going out beyond the qualitative inference.

Remark 3. The formalism in which the inference of quality ends finds its purest expression in the inference of quantity. According to its immediate quantity-content, the inference can be reduced to the mathematical axiom: two magnitudes, each of which is equal to one and the same third, are equal to each other; $a = b$, $b = c$, therefore $a = c$. But since all the *termini* here have the selfsame significance, there can in the logical sense be talk neither of concept, judgment nor inference. The inference of quantity must for that reason be further developed and determined as the *comprehensive* inference, in which the universal and the single hold themselves with

relative independence over against each other, and therefore seek a more concrete *terminus medius*. For the rest, the inference of quantity runs through the same schemata as that of quality. In allness the universal and the single come immediately into view with their unity and difference. Since allness is the collective universality, singleness becomes by its own repetition itself universalized; but since every single in turn has its independent significance in the allness, universality is at the same time based upon singlenesses; the medium or the separate is in this case nothing other than the universal's and the single's existential determinateness. Hence the comprehensive inference begins, as *inference of allness*, with the first schema: $E-S-A$. "All (single) men are mortal, Caius is *a single* man; therefore C. is mortal." The conclusion is in this form too a tautological repetition of the major premise, and the inference of allness is for that reason only to be regarded as a transition, so that everything depends upon an actual union of the separate and the universal, whose ground is to be sought in singleness. The comprehensive inference hereby enters into the second schema: $S-E-A$, and is determined as *induction*. According to formal logic, inferences of induction are characterized thus: "one infers that a predicate that belongs to a *determinate* number of subjects of a certain *genus* must hold for *all* subjects belonging under this *genus*;" or: "What holds of certain species and individuals that are subsumed under a universal genus-concept must also hold of the whole genus." But from this point of view the inference loses its essential significance; for if all possible cases are not enumerated, it is incomplete, and when they are all adduced, one obtains an addition instead of an inference. If induction's logical worth is to be acknowledged, then the accent must necessarily fall upon the *terminus medius*, which here presents the developed allness. More closely inspected, allness now offers a double side; for partly it shows itself to thought as the essential universality, partly it is apprehended by immediate observation as the common determination of the singlenesses. The essence, the universal, exists only in the individuals; one cannot therefore cognize the genus without having first observed all its species and individuals; but every following individual is always in certain ways different from the preceding, and the number of the singlenesses so great that one can never finish the observation. Cognition's a priori moment is still hampered by the preponderance of the a posteriori, and the result is a combination of thinking and sensation, which lies at the ground of all experience. By posing a task that cannot be solved, induction marks the logical transition to the

inference of analogy. Instead of seeking the universal in the sum of the singlenesses and losing itself in an endless approximation, thinking now posits a given exemplar as immediate expression of the genus-concept and its specific determinations, whereby the inference's schema is changed to: $E-A-S$. If two subjects have a certain number of predicates in common, one infers according to the formal analogy that they must have yet more. The earth and the moon have, as planets, several common properties; since now the earth is also inhabited, it seems to follow from this that the moon must be so too. The moon (E) is thus ascribed, on account of its likeness with the earth (A , insofar namely as the earth in this case represents the planet's concept), the particular determination (S) of being inhabited. The general concept, which fled through induction's endless progress, is now immediately held fast as the inference of analogy's determinate foundation; but since its appearance is quite empirical, it still remains doubtful how many of the particular determinations belong to the genus, and consequently can be found again in all its species and individuals, and how many on the contrary belong to the single exemplar. Even if natural science had not pointed out phenomena that conflict with the hypothesis of moon-dwellers, it would still always be problematic whether it belonged to the earth as a single individual globe, or as the planet-concept's existential expression, to be inhabited by living beings. As astrology shows how one can misuse induction and analogy to introduce fantastic dream-images into actuality's realm, so Christophobia proves on the contrary, insofar as it gives itself a philosophical tinge, that the same forms of inference can be used when the aim is to transform the historical truth into a dream-image. It is this hovering between the immediate experience and the free thinking, between the outer actuality and the essential concept, that characterizes the comprehensive inferences, and occasions their great ambiguity. Reflection can fall into the leading-strings of sensation and empiricism; but the immediate glance of thought is again able to penetrate the empirical surface and gather the sporadic moments in their essential ground. The rule that develops itself in order to become law, the circuit and the endless progress, repetition and alternation, belong under this sphere; hope itself is an inference of induction. Hence the inference of induction and analogy extends its logical dominion all the way from the prosaic probability and the empty surmise, through the deep presentiment, to the genial divination.

Remark 4. The opposition between the thought and the existing concept, together

with the concrete unity of both, is developed in the inference of relation, whose mark is that each of the three *termini* itself expresses the whole concept-totality. The difference between the extremes therefore seems at first glance to concern not so much the content as the form; for every single concept, individual, is the general concept's own actuality, and the concrete general concept is in turn the actual individual's totalized essentiality. But, more closely regarded, the formal difference is also to be recognized as a difference in the content itself. For as immediate single existence the individual can have many indifferent and accidental qualities that fall outside its concept; it can moreover find itself in such a state that the essential and original determinations are in many ways hidden and hampered, so that the actual exemplar by no means expresses the whole concept-content. A similar one-sidedness obtains with respect to the general concept, whose separate determinations can appear only in and by means of the individual. If the sensuous did not exist, then sensuousness could not be either; if the rational did not exist, the thought of a universal rationality would be a meaningless abstraction. The true unity of the single and the universal is consequently to be determined as both extremes' infinite relation, i.e. such a joining of both outer members that the individual itself is developed to its concept, whereby *universalia in re* are transformed into *universalia in mente*; while the concept is at the same time individualized, and *universalia in mente* converted into *universalia in re*. As a natural individual without upbringing, man cannot reach his determination, because he lacks the stamp of the universally human, and thus, logically speaking, does not answer to his concept; but just as little can a blind, habitual submission to the laws of duty and morality satisfy human nature, which will always demand an independent appropriation of what is handed down, as the free single will's imperishable right. True upbringing is an inference of relation, which has the natural individuality and the moral laws for its extremes, but the living, personal unity of both for its *terminus medius* (— false originality, formal school, true originality; — mystical self-annihilation, mystical self-deification; religious personality —).

Since the concept's essence in relation to the existing individuals must always be the overreaching, insofar as it expresses the things' category, the category or the separate concept forms the medium between singleness and the abstract universality. Hence relation begins with the *categorical* inference after the schema: *E—S—A*. In syllogistic form the categorical inference cannot well be distinguished from the infer-

ence of allness, since the syllogism's middle term is always simply inserted without developing itself out of the connection itself. What on the contrary distinguishes the categorical inference above the general one is the insight into the concept's essence, which makes every enumeration of the special cases and empirical appearances superfluous. He who has once fully recognized which fundamental determinations belong together in order to constitute human nature can always be certain of finding each of these again, either *implicite eller explicite*, in the single individuals, without needing an endlessly continued experience. If such categorical certainty were not given, then every question of principle would be meaningless, and science itself an impossibility. By means of the categorical inference the concept's apriority is first fully acknowledged. But as the categorical inference dissolves the existing things into their categories, it presents at the same time a one-sided concept-realism (*universalia ante rem*), which must be corrected by a higher form of inference. That no thing can contradict its category without changing name and existence — from this it does not yet follow that the thing's individual determination should immediately coincide with the concept's universality; because possibility's extension is determinate, its content is not yet for that reason exhausted. In order therefore to satisfy individuation and the higher realism (*univ. in re*), singleness must itself be laid at the ground. The a posteriori (experience and fact) thereby steps up anew against the concept, and the mutual relation of both is developed in the *hypothetical* inference of the schema: *S—E—A*. Since the middle concept is reduced to singleness and fact, and consequently must be given immediately, the hypothetical inference can express its logical content in the syllogism's form. The major premise then becomes a hypothetical judgment, and formal logic now prescribes a double method of inference: from the antecedent's correctness one infers by *modus ponens* to the consequent's validity, after the rule: *posita conditione, ponitur etiam conditionatum*; from the consequent's incorrectness one infers on the contrary by *modus tollens* to the antecedent's rejectability, according to the rule: *sublato conditionato, tollitur etiam conditio*.

Misled by a grammatical regard, formal logic has, however, committed the error of confusing *conditio* with *conditionatum*. In a judgment such as this: "If *F* has seen this play, it must have been performed," the consequent evidently declares the proper condition, the antecedent on the contrary the conditioned. The general relation between actuality and concept is presented in the *propositio major*, which expresses

the a priori law of thought without regard to any determinate actuality. The minor premise thereby acquires, in consequence, a double significance: partly the condition can be negated, in which case the conditioned actuality is to be regarded as impossible (*a non posse esse ad non esse valet consequentia*); partly the single fact can show itself so unambiguous that the presence of its conditions can be derived from it (*ab esse ad posse esse valet consequentia*). The application of the hypothetical inference serves to make intuitable the true interaction between thinking and experience. On this relation rests philosophy's formal cultivation and real advance. A philosophical school that, for example, overvalues the logical can, as regards principle, always be referred to the hypothetical major premise: "If *A* is a philosophical problem, it must be solvable by pure dialectic. So long as such a school is in process of forming itself, its adherents will, in the choice and treatment of the philosophical tasks, keep to the presupposition's infallibility, and by application of *modus ponens* volatilize every problem whose solution oversteps the boundaries of formal dialectic. "If evil is a problem, it must find a dialectical solution; now it is a philosophical problem, therefore it has no other significance than that which formal dialectic can allow it." But when the facts speak too loudly against such a reduction, philosophy is at last compelled to take a step forward, turn the inference about, and avow *modus tollens*: "If formal dialectic yields philosophy's absolute method, then it must be able to solve the problem of evil; now it cannot solve it, therefore the method is insufficient." If the form of inference is apprehended from a general point of view, then the one-sidedness lies in this, that the major premise states only an abstract necessity, while the minor introduces a pure contingency; hence the conclusion still lacks the true grounding. This defect the *disjunctive* inference remedies by positing its middle concept as the real possibility of the actual existential forms, after the schema: $E-A-S$. This schema may indeed seem to deviate from the disjunctive inference's usual form: *A* is either *E* or *E'*, or *E''*; now *A* is posited as *E*, therefore it is neither *E'* nor *E''*; but according to the significance ascribed above (§ 8, Remark 4) to the disjunction, the major premise, according to its concept, is to be presented thus: *E*, *E'*, *E''* are, each for itself, to be subsumed under *A*; now *A* is determined as *E*, therefore it is in this *particular* (*S*) case neither *E'* nor *E''*. The general concept (*A*) has now so concrete a content that its real possibility preforms the outer actuality. The conditions for its stepping out into particular existential forms are indeed still fetched from without; but the existence that

yields these conditions has itself proceeded from the absolute concept's own ground. According to the possibilities' inner sundering, A is both E , E' and E'' ; but according to actuality's exclusive determinateness it cannot be E' and E'' when it is E . If the outer disjunction were not posited, then possibility would remain eternally unactual; if the inner disjunction were only an empty abstraction, the exclusive actuality would be impossible. As the disjunctive inference thus yields the highest norm for the concept's formal development, it confirms at the same time the truth that the absolute concept would have no validity if it did not at once exist both *inwardly*, in the all-intelligence's infinite freedom, as a realm of sundered possibilities and individualized potencies, and *outwardly*, in the universe's immediate actuality, whose outer totality stamps out the real disjunction. In essentiality mediation holds; in actuality, *principium exclusi medii*; the true unity of theory and practice will therefore always rest upon a thorough synthesis of mediation and exclusion.

Remark 5. The number of the inferences is, with respect to their separate content, as infinite as the multiplicity of thoughts and things. It is consequently an impossibility to enumerate all the cases in which they can cross one another and pass over into one another. But in all different sunderings and joinings the general ground-norm nevertheless holds, that each of the three *termini* is to be posited both as extreme and as medium. Hence the higher logic teaches that every inference consists in a system of three inferences. "Many disagreements and confusions in science have their ground in one's keeping to the single inference instead of to the whole system. Hereby arise different, indeed opposite assertions, of which each is correct insofar as it is a side of the truth, but incorrect insofar as its truth is one-sided. When one says that man's spiritual nature develops itself out of the sensuous, or that the body develops the soul, one infers according to $E-S-A$. If one says that the sensuous and the spiritual are inseparably bound together in the individual, and that neither of the two has priority over the other, then it is $S-E-A$. And if one finally assumes that it is the spiritual nature that lies at the ground of the development of the sensuous, or that it is the soul that forms its body, one infers according to $E-A-S$. But the whole truth is only in the complete system of all three inferences. The first inference is materialism's, the second is empiricism's, the third is spiritualism's. But the whole system is idealism's." Heiberg: Den specul. Logik, Pag. 99.

§ 11.

The Real Validity of Inference: Proof and Method.

Since the formal syllogistic satisfies only the empty reflection, without any regard to existence's real content, this defect must in turn be made good by a series of immediate presuppositions being taken up outright as given points of attachment for reasoning thought. Knowledge proper, or scientific cognition, will thus rest upon the mediate or resulting unity of thinking and being, which is to be sought in *the proof*. But so long as the proof is conditioned by so external a combination of concept and actuality, the scientific method can be driven from the one extreme to the other. Dogmatism, which builds upon unproven presuppositions, is supplanted by criticism, which shakes all positive supports and overturns the thetic edifice of doctrine. In order to escape the skeptical confusion, the higher knowledge, which has not yet found its true method, must then develop itself either into a formal idealism, which absorbs existence's content in an immanent demonstration, or into a realism of feeling, which exchanges the scientific form for a lyrical rhetoric, and relies upon immediate evidence.

The true philosophical method can consist neither in a merely poetic-genial unveiling of existence's absolute content, nor in a merely logical formal development of the universe's concept-moments, but must justify itself as a totality-dialectic, in which existence's principles show themselves with their relative significance, and all life's potencies stir according to their peculiar validity.

Remark 1. Aristotle (*Analytic. post. c. 1–3*) places the difference between syllogism and proof in this, that the syllogism in and for itself gives no real cognition (συλλογισμὸς οὐ ποιήσει ἐπιστήμην), while the proof (ἀπόδειξις) on the contrary always carries with it the certainty that the matter must in itself stand as we think it, wherefore the proof can also be called a cognition-syllogism (συλλογισμὸς ἐπιστημονικός). Nevertheless he seeks to refute the view that all cognition of truth should be dependent upon syllogistic proofs. By positing the demonstration as condition for all knowledge, one must either, as some have wished, deny science's possibility, since every inference contains premises that must in turn be proved by new inferences, so that the whole conduct of proof loses itself in an endless regress; or else, what others have attempted, derive the premises from their own conclusions, whereby

the so-called *circulus in probando* arises, and the proof comes to hover in the air. As there are, then, according to Aristotle, truths that can and must be demonstrated, so there are also truths that require no proof, since they themselves yield the original supporting-points for all demonstration: ἀνάγκη καὶ τὴν ἀποδεικτικὴν ἐπιστήμην ἐξ ἀληθῶν τ' εἶναι καὶ πρώτων, καὶ ἀμέσων, καὶ γνωριμοτέρων καὶ προτέρων, καὶ αἰτίων τοῦ συμπεράσματος. οὗτος γὰρ ἔσονται καὶ αἱ ἀρχαὶ οἰκεῖαι τοῦ δεικνυμένου (*Anal. post. c. 2*). It is chiefly the assumption of these many ἀρχαί, or principles and grounds of cognition, that separates Aristotle from Plato. For while Plato aimed especially at explaining the multiplicity of things in virtue of the universal concepts' (the ideas') apriority, Aristotle fixed his gaze also upon the world of experience, in order to find in it the sporadic points of departure, and to lead the existing single concepts (αἱ πρώται οὐσίαι) back to their universal fundamental concept. Although now every science has its separate presuppositions, still in all of them, even in philosophy, there must both be something from which one proves, and also something about which the conduct of proof turns; the Aristotelian doctrine of thought can therefore be said to have established philosophy's dogmatic method.

Remark 2. After dogmatism in the history of philosophy had run through various stages of development, it was in modern times driven to its peak by Christ. Wolf, who methodically cultivated the so-called *methodus mathematica*. Since every presupposition in this method coincides with a definition that is to express the concept's essential determinations, analysis is sufficient to bring out the result already anticipated in the definition itself; whereby the whole demonstration acquires a semblance of apodictic infallibility. "The divine Being must, according to its concept, possess all perfections; being is a perfection, therefore God must exist." — The insufficiency of this dogmatic method was demonstrated by Kant (jfr. *Die Disciplin der reinen Vernunft im dogmatischen Gebrauche*; *Kritik d. r. V.*; *Methodenlehre* 1 Hauptst.). While Kant concedes to mathematics that it gives a brilliant example of pure reason's self-development without experience's help, he at the same time denies the mathematical method's applicability in philosophy. The methodical difference is grounded in the peculiar nature of the two sciences. For while philosophical cognition considers the separate in the universal, i.e. holds fast universality *in abstracto*, the mathematical on the contrary posits the universal in the separate, and thus possesses it *in concreto*; what "der Vernunftgebrauch durch Construction der Begriffe" is in mathematics, "der Vernunftgebrauch nach Begriffen"

is in philosophy. Mathematics' definitions are always infallible, since they are brought forth *a priori* together with their corresponding objects; while the philosophical definitions on the contrary presuppose a content given in actuality, whose determinations cannot be immediately delimited. Mathematics, which constructs its concepts in a priori synthesis, can employ the demonstration; whereas philosophy, whose universal concepts must always refer to "possible experience," cannot attain to any speculative synthetic judgment, and therefore cannot demonstrate its way forward either. But although Kant thus sought to drive all "dogmata" from philosophy's precincts, he still leaves behind, in his "discursive Grundsätze" and his dialectical "Antithetik," a remnant of dogmatism and demonstration.

Remark 3. In his Wissenschaftslehre Fichte set himself the task of reconciling dogmatism with criticism, and insofar as dogmatism refers to a "Ding an sich," it may be said to be thoroughly overcome in his transcendental idealism; on the other hand he approved the demonstration, and developed it to its highest stringency. As the first unconditioned principle: $A = A$ is annulled in the thinking I's identity with itself, so the second: A is not $= - A$ expresses the I's difference from the not-I. *Identity* and *opposition* thus give themselves as expressions of I-hood's original fundamental acts. The third principal proposition: A and $- A$, I and not-I, mutually *bound* each other, can now be deduced from the two preceding, so that the unity of reality and negation, identity and opposition, which makes up *the ground's* essential mark, already receives the form of proof. As antithesis and synthesis thus condition and integrate each other in the continued development, the philosophical categories take on an intermediate character of fixity and fluidity, whereby the whole system rounds itself off in an immanent demonstration. While Fichte thus heeded only thought's necessity, and philosophized for philosophy's sake, Jacobi on the contrary followed the promptings of the heart, and philosophized for the result's sake. In the firm conviction that every philosophical demonstration must consistently lead either to fatalism (Spinoza) or to atheism (Fichte), he polemicized against the finite reflection's "Durch= und Durch=Begriffe," and defended with rhetorical power reason's immediate cognition of God against the abstract knowledge's nihilism. While Kant still acknowledged the categories' subjective universal validity, only that they could not be applied to the thing in itself, Jacobi, as Hegel has already remarked, went a step further, and demonstrated the understanding-concepts' own finitude and mechanical conditionedness. According

to Kant, speculative science must be given up, because it is once for all a psychological fact that the forms of cognition lie in ourselves, and not in the essence of things; according to Jacobi, true comprehension becomes impossible, because the concept, as such, is itself finite, and consequently incommensurable with truth's infinite content. If Kant attacked metaphysics chiefly from the side of the stuff, without consummating the mechanical demonstration's own dissolution, then Jacobi on the contrary attacked metaphysics' form, and sought thereby to bring every philosophical *method* into discredit.

Remark 4. When Kant calls the philosopher an *artist of reason*, he thereby intimates that philosophy cannot dispense with a determinate structure, that its scientific content has its validity in the form; when Jacobi on the contrary sets the philosopher the task of *unveiling existence* (Daseyn zu enthüllen), he thereby reminds us that science's true worth always rests upon its substance. The philosophical question of method is therefore as far from being an empty formal question as a mechanical schema is from being a philosophical system. The form that determines the content is in turn determined by the content's peculiar character; as impossible as it is to develop a content without giving it form, just as unscientific is it on the other side to confuse the content with the stuff, and to apply an already finished form to a content given from without: that which determines (the form) and that which is determined (the content) reflect each other in the complete determinateness. He who would judge a philosophy's substance without regard to its peculiar form proceeds from the presupposition that the identity of content and form must rest upon the difference of both. If this way of seeing had no validity, then the history of philosophy would be meaningless; for the historical advance is always conditioned by the inadequate and outdated forms being cast off, in order that their essential content may be reproduced in a new form. He who maintains that the philosophical form cannot be separated from philosophy's content proceeds from the presupposition that the difference of form and content grounds their true identity — that the difference is thus a moment vanishing in the identity. If this contention were altogether false, science itself would be superfluous. — The difference between life's and philosophy's substance is in fact to be regarded as properly a difference of form, since all that has truth in life must also be recognized as truth in philosophy. What is peculiar in philosophy's content will thus rest upon its peculiar form; the productive philosophers who have discovered new forms have

at the same time drawn forth new moments of content. — What the intellectual intuition is with respect to the content, the dialectical reflection is with respect to the form. All speculation is intuition; the philosophical vision apprehends things' fundamental relations, life's shapes and existence's stages of development in large outlines; intuition is thus a plastic vision, for which form and method give themselves immediately together with content and substance. Without speculative genius there is no philosophical productivity: philosophy cannot be learned (Schelling). So long, however, as intuition has one-sided preponderance over reflection, the scientific form is present only in its possibility; but even if philosophy's genius has raised itself to "the realm of the dawn," still the ideas' genial breaking-forth and intuition's prophecies have significance only insofar as philosophy is able to go out beyond the beginning, fulfil the prophecy, and take up actuality's concrete content in articulated forms. Philosophy is science, and distinguishes itself from poetry in this, that its forms are won through independent reflection and an all-sidedly testing meditation; it thus presupposes study, it justifies its method, and must so far be capable of being learned (Hegel).

Remark 5. A philosophy's one-sidedness must not be confused with its incompleteness. Incompleteness shows itself in important points being passed over or only provisionally treated; but one-sidedness rests essentially upon certain fundamental moments being pushed back, while others on the contrary come forward with undue preponderance. A philosophy can be one-sided without being incomplete, and conversely incomplete without being one-sided. One-sidedness lies then in the systematic plan, in the method, and thus refers at once both to content and to form. Spinoza's system is one-sided, because substantiality here absorbs subjectivity, and even had Spinoza developed the human concept of freedom ever so fully, he would still never have been able to acknowledge freedom's reality without giving up his principle. Fichte's idealism is one-sided, because it lets subjectivity devour substantiality. True enough, Fichte has a place for the category of substance; but even had he written folios on the concept of substantiality, he would still, according to his fundamental view, never have recognized its objective significance. The true philosophical method can therefore in general be characterized as a totality-dialectic, which, to use Professor Sibbern's expression, forms itself "under an all-embracing conference and debate of everything against everything" (cfr. Sibbern: *Om Philosophiens Begreb, Natur og*

Væsen. Pag. 24; 81).

The Propaedeutic Logic's

second Part:

The Doctrine of the Objective Concept.

Introduction.

§ 12.

The Dialectical-Speculative Method.

First Chapter.

The Formation of the Objective Concept.

§ 13.

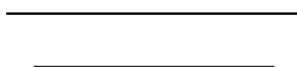
Being and Essence.

§ 14.

Essence and Actuality.

§ 15.

Actuality and the Concept.

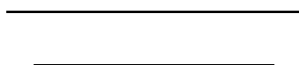
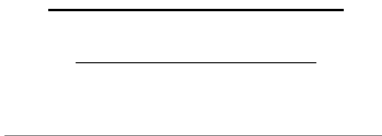


Second Chapter.

The Freedom of the Objective Concept.

§ 16.

Ideality and Reality.

§ 17.**Subjectivity and Objectivity.****§ 18.****Teleology.*****Third Chapter.******The Fullness of the Objective Concept: the Logic of the Idea.*****§ 19.****The Originality of the Idea.****§ 20.****The Interaction of the Ideas.****§ 21.****Idea and God.**

Errata

Page 80 line 3 from above Omsætningen read: Oversætningen

- 92 — 13 — A er ei = A, — A er ci = — A
- 93 — 7 — Betingelser — Betingethed
- 112 — 4 from below Daddel — Dadel
- 152 — 8 — med — ved
- 154 — 15 — Dyr=Rige — Dyre=Rige
- 187 — 9 — εἶδη — εἶδη
- 206 — 9 — en miniatur — en miniature
- 241 — 1 — θετον — θεῖον